THE PENNY MAGAZINE

OF THE

Society for the Diffusion of Useful Knowledge.

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READING FOR ALL.

IN a book upon the Poor, published in 1673, called 'The Grand Concern of England explained,' we find the following singular proposal:—"that the multitude of stage-coaches and caravans, now travelling upon the roads, may all, or most of them, be suppressed, especially those within forty, fifty, or sixty miles of London." The evil of the stage-coaches is somewhat difficult to be perceived at the present day; but this ingenious author had no doubt whatever on the matter, "for," says he, "will any man keep a horse for himself and another for his man, all the year, for to ride one or two journies, that at pleasure, when he hath occasion, can step to any place where his business lies, for two, three, or four shillings, if within twenty miles of London, and so proportionably into any part of England?"

We laugh at the lamentation over the evil of stage-coaches, because we daily see or experience the benefits of the thousands of public conveyances carrying forward the personal intercourse of a busy population, and equally useful whether they run from Paddington to the Bank, or from the General Post-Office to Edinburgh. Some, however, who acknowledge the fallacy of putting down long and short stages, that horses may be kept all the year, "for to ride one or two journies," may fall into the very same mistake with regard to knowledge that was thus applied to communication. They may desire to retain a monopoly of literature for those who can buy expensive books; they may think a five-guinea quarto (like the horse for one or two journies) a public benefit, and look upon a shilling duodecimo to be used by every one "at pleasure, when he hath occasion," (like the stage-coach,) as a public evil.

What the stage-coach has become to the middle classes, we hope our Penny Magazine will be to *all* classes—a universal convenience and enjoyment. The Society for the Diffusion of Useful Knowledge have considered it proper to commence this publication, from the belief that many persons, whose time and whose means are equally limited, may be induced to purchase and to read it. The various works already published by the Society are principally adapted to diligent readers,—to those who are anxiously desirous to obtain knowledge in a condensed, and, in most cases, systematic form. But there are a very great number of persons who can spare half an hour for the reading of a newspaper, who are sometimes disinclined to open a book. For these we shall endeavour to prepare a useful and entertaining Weekly Magazine, that may be taken up and laid down without requiring any considerable effort; and that may tend to fix the mind upon calmer, and, it may be, purer subjects of thought than the violence of party discussion, or the stimulating details of crime and suffering. We have, however, no expectation of superseding the newspaper, and no desire to supersede it. We hope only to share some portion of the attention which is now almost exclusively bestowed upon "the folio of four pages," by those who read little and seldom. We consider it the duty of every man to make himself acquainted with the events that are passing in the world,—with the progress of legislation, and the administration of the laws; for every man is deeply interested in all the great questions of government. Every man, however, may not be qualified to understand them; but the more he knows, the less hasty and the less violent will be his opinions. The false judgments which are sometimes formed by the people upon public events, can only be corrected by the diffusion of sound knowledge. Whatever tends to enlarge the range of observation, to add to the store of facts, to awaken the reason, and to lead the imagination into agreeable and innocent trains of thought, may assist in the establishment of a sincere and ardent desire for information; and in this point of view our little Miscellany may prepare the way for the reception of more elaborate and precise knowledge, and be as the small optic-glass called "the finder," which is placed by the side of a large telescope, to enable the observer to discover the star which is afterwards to be carefully examined by the more perfect instrument

CHARING CROSS.



THIS place has been recently greatly improved by clearing away decaying houses, and enlarging the space for the public convenience, and for the display of newly-erected handsome buildings. It derives its name from having been anciently a village detached from London, called *Charing*, and from a stately *Cross* erected there by order of Edward I., to commemorate his affection for Eleanor, his deceased queen. The cross occupied the last spot on which her body rested in its progress to sepulture in Westminster Abbey. The other resting-places of her sumptuous funeral were dignified by similar edifices.

Two centuries and a half ago, Charing Cross was within bow-shot of the open country, all the way to Hampstead and Highgate. North of the Cross there were only a few houses in front of the Mews, where the King's falcons were kept. The Hay-market was a country road, with hedges on each side, running between pastures. St. Martin's lane was bounded on the west side by the high walls of the Mews, and on the other side by a few houses and by old St. Martin's church, where the present church stands. From these buildings it was a quiet country lane, leading to St. Giles's, then a pleasant village, situated among fine trees. Holborn was a mere road between open meadow-land, with a green hedge on the north side. In the Strand, opposite to St. Martin's lane, stood the hospital and gardens of St. Mary Rouncival, a religious establishment founded and endowed by William Earl of Pembroke, in the reign of Henry III. In the middle of the road leading to the Abbey, and opposite to Charing Cross, stood a hermitage and chapel dedicated to St. Catherine.

Charing Cross is represented in the above engraving. It was of an octagonal form and built of stone, and in an upper stage contained eight figures. In 1643 it was pulled down and destroyed by the populace, in their zeal against superstitious edifices. Upon the ground of similar zeal, Henry VIII. suppressed the religious houses of the kingdom, and seized their estates and revenues to his own use: the hospital of St. Mary Rouncival was included in this fate. On its ancient site stands the palace of the Duke of Northumberland. It was built in the reign of

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James I. by Henry Howard, Earl of Northampton, and during his life was called Northampton House. In 1642 it came to Algernon, Earl of Northumberland, by marriage, and since then has been called Northumberland House.

The exact spot upon which Charing Cross stood is occupied by an equestrian statue of Charles I. in bronze, executed in 1633 by Le Sœur, for the Earl of Arundel. During the civil wars it fell into the hands of the Parliament, by whom it was ordered to be sold and broken up. The purchaser, John River, a brazier, produced some pieces of broken brass, in token of his having complied with the conditions of sale; and he sold to the cavaliers the handles of knives and forks as made from the statue: River deceived both the Parliament and the loyalists; for he had buried the statue unmutilated. At the restoration of Charles II. he dug it up, and sold it to the Government; and Grinlin Gibbon executed a stone pedestal, seventeen feet high, upon which it was placed and still remains. It has been customary on the 29th of May, the anniversary of the Restoration, to dress the statue with oaken boughs.

VAN DIEMEN'S LAND.

We have before us an Almanac for 1831, published in Hobart Town, the capital of Van Diemen's Land. It is a matter of agreeable wonder to find an Almanac published in, and for the use of, a country, which even at so late a date as the beginning of the present century (within thirty years), and indeed for some years afterwards, was inhabited merely by a few thousands of the most ignorant and destitute savages on the face of the earth. And now we find established on those distant shores a community so far advanced in social refinement as to have already an almanac of its own; one, too, in many respects as well executed as any production of the same kind to be found in older countries, and much better than some that still disgrace the most civilized countries. This is an Almanac without Astrology.

Although called an Almanac, this little volume contains a considerable variety of information not usually given in works of that description. The heavy stamp-duty in our own country renders it necessary that an Almanac should contain little besides the Calendar, Lists, and useful Tables; and thus the Society for the Diffusion of Useful Knowledge prints a Companion to the Almanac, which may be bought with it or not. In addition to a Calendar and the ordinary lists, we have here a body of information respecting the past, and especially the present state of the country, embracing almost every particular with which either a person intending to emigrate, or the general reader, can desire to be acquainted.

Van Diemen's Land was discovered so long ago as the year 1642, by the Dutch navigator Tasman, who gave it the name which it still bears, in honour of his employer Anthony Van Diemen, the then governor of the Dutch possessions in India. It was not, however, till the year 1804 that the country was taken possession of by England. In the early part of that year Colonel David Collins, having been appointed Governor of the projected settlement, arrived on the island with about four hundred prisoners in charge, and a force of fifty marines under his command. He was accompanied also by several gentlemen, commissioned to fill the various situations in the new government. They fixed their headquarters on the site of the present capital, to which they gave the name of Hobart Town, after Lord Hobart, the then Secretary for the Colonies. "The Colony," proceeds the narrative before us, "being thus founded, continued to take root, although at times suffering very great hardships. Indeed those who recollect them, and see what the place has since become, will be of opinion that no difficulties at the outset of colonization are enough to deter adventurers from steadily pursuing their object. For the first three years, the inhabitants being wholly dependent upon foreign supplies for the commonest articles of food, were occasionally reduced to great straits; and, accordingly, we hear of eighteen pence per pound having been readily given for kangaroo flesh, and that even sea-weed, or any other vegetable substance that could be eaten, was eagerly sought after. But man is always the better for being thrown upon his own resources. After a time, it was discovered that the colony itself, if the land were cultivated, possessed that which would supersede the necessity of seeking elsewhere for food; and, although the first attempts at husbandry were merely made with the hoe and spade, enough was ascertained by them to bid the colonists go on and prosper." No sheep or cattle were imported till three years after the settlement of the island. For some time after this, indeed, the colony was looked upon merely as a place of punishment for persons convicted of crimes in New South Wales, numbers of whom accordingly continued to be sent to it every year. Governor Collins died in 1810; and in 1813 Lieutenant-Colonel Davey arrived as his successor.

From about this time the colony began to be considered in a new light. The population consisted no longer merely of the convicts and the garrison; but, besides many persons who, having been originally crown prisoners, had obtained their freedom by servitude or indulgence, embraced a considerable number of settlers who had arrived in successive small parties from the neighbouring colony of New South Wales. Hitherto the only places with which Van Diemen's Land was allowed to hold any communication, had been New South Wales and England: that restriction was now done away with, and the two colonies were placed, in respect to foreign commerce, on precisely the same footing. In 1816 the numbers of the community and the importance of its affairs had so much increased, that the government thought proper to establish a newspaper, entitled The Hobart Town Gazette, principally for the purpose of promulgating proclamations and other notices. This year also was distinguished by the first exportation of corn from the island, a considerable quantity having been sent to Port Jackson, and likewise by the commencement of whale-fishing by the colonists, "two of the sinews," says the present writer, "of our prosperity as a colony."

In 1817 Colonel Davey was succeeded in the government by Colonel Sorell. The first object which engaged the attention of the new Governor was the suppression of an evil under which the colony had for some years been suffering, the ravages of the bush-rangers, as they were called, or prisoners who had made their escape and roamed at large in the woods. The capture and execution of the principal leaders of these marauders in a short time put an end, for the present, to their destructive inroads. Colonel Sorell then applied himself to the improvement, in various ways, of the internal condition of the colony. Amongst other important public works he formed a road between Hobart Town and Launceston, another settlement which had been made about a hundred and twenty miles farther north.

About 1821 may be said to have begun the emigration from England, which has since proceeded almost with uninterrupted steadiness. The immediate consequence was, "that trade began to assume regularity, distilleries and breweries were erected, the Van Diemen's Land Bank established, St. David's church at Hobart Town finished and opened, and many other steps taken, equally indicative of the progress the colony was making." In 1824 a supreme court of judicature was established in the colony. The same year Colonel Sorell was replaced by Colonel Arthur, the present Governor

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Very soon after Colonel Arthur's arrival, bush-ranging again broke out in a more formidable manner than ever; but, by the judicious plans which he adopted for its suppression, "in the course of a few months," says the present writer, "not only was tranquillity entirely restored, but was placed on so firm a basis, that it is next to impossible ever to be again disturbed by a similar cause."

In December, 1825, Van Diemen's Land was declared entirely independent of New South Wales; and an executive and legislative Council were appointed as advisers to the Governor, the members of both being named by the Crown. In 1827 the island was divided into eight police districts, each of which was placed under the charge of a stipendiary magistrate. The colony about this time "began to export considerably, loading several ships each season to England, with wool, bark, and oil."

A new evil, however, now began to assail the colony, we mean the hostility of the natives. After various attempts had been made in vain to tame them, or to deter them from continuing outrages against the settlers, the Governor, at last, in September 1830, deemed it necessary to resort to the extreme measure of endeavouring to drive them into one corner of the island, with the intention of there enclosing them for the future. For this purpose the whole of the inhabitants were called upon to arm themselves, and to lend their aid to the military. The result had not been completely successful at the time when the latest accounts left the country.

In the course of the year 1828 the colony, and Hobart Town in particular, made a decided step in advance. In 1829 a new Act of Parliament was passed for the government of the colony, the most important provisions of which were, the transference of the power of levying taxes from the Governor to the Legislative Council, and the extension of the authority of all the laws of England to Van Diemen's Land, as far as the circumstances of the colony permitted.

Such is a brief sketch of the origin and progress hitherto of this young, but advanced and flourishing colony. Our next week's publication will contain an account of its present state.

ANTIQUITY OF BEER.

The general drinks of the Anglo-Saxons were ale and mead: wine was a luxury for the great. In the Saxon Dialogues preserved in the Cotton Library in the British Museum, a boy, who is questioned upon his habits and the uses of things, says, in answer to the inquiry what he drank—"Ale if I have it, or water if I have it not." He adds, that wine is the drink "of the elders and the wise." Ale was sold to the people, as at this day, in houses of entertainment; "for a priest was forbidden by a law to eat or drink at *ceapealethetum*, literally, places where ale was sold." After the Norman Conquest, wine became more commonly used; and the vine was extensively cultivated in England. The people, however, held to the beverage of their forefathers with great pertinacity; and neither the juice of the grape nor of the apple were ever general favourites. Of a favourite wassail or drinking-song of the fifteenth century, the burden was—

"Bring us home good ale."

"The old ale knights of England," as Camden calls the sturdy yeomen of this period, knew not, however, the ale to which hops in the next century gave both flavour and preservation. Hops appear to have been used in the breweries of the Netherlands in the beginning of the fourteenth century. In England they were not used in the composition of beer till nearly two centuries afterwards. It has been affirmed that the planting of hops was forbidden in the reign of Henry VI.; and it is certain that Henry VIII. forbade brewers to put hops and sulphur into ale. In the fifth year of Edward VI., the royal and national taste appears to have changed; for privileges were then granted to hop-grounds. Tusser, in his 'Five Hundred Points of good Husbandry,' printed in 1557, thus sings the praises of this plant:—

"The hop for his profit I thus do exalt,
It strengtheneth drink and it flavoureth malt;
And being well-brewed long kept it will last,
And drawing abide, if ye draw not too fast."

In the reign of James I. the plant was not sufficiently cultivated in England for the consumption; as there is a statue of 1608 against the importation of spoiled hops. In 1830 there were 46,727 acres occupied in the cultivation of hops in Great Britain.

Of barley, there are now above thirty million bushels annually converted into malt in Great Britain; and more than eight million barrels of beer, of which four-fifths are strong beer, are brewed yearly. This is a consumption, by the great body of the people, of a favourite beverage, which indicates a distribution of the national wealth, satisfactory by comparison with the general poverty of less advanced periods of civilization in our own country, and with that of less industrious nations in our own day.—*Vegetable Substances used for Food.*

FAIR PLAY.

A nobleman resident at a castle in Italy was about to celebrate his marriage feast. All the elements were propitious except the ocean, which had been so boisterous as to deny the very necessary appendage of fish. On the very morning of the feast, however, a poor fisherman made his appearance, with a turbot so large, that it seemed to have been created for the occasion. Joy pervaded the castle, and the fisherman was ushered with his prize into the saloon, where the nobleman, in the presence of his visitors, requested him to put what price he thought proper on the fish, and it should be instantly paid him. One hundred lashes, said the fisherman, on my bare back, is the price of my fish, and I will not bate one strand of whip-cord on the bargain. The nobleman and his guests were not a little astonished, but our chapman was resolute, and remonstrance was in vain. At length the nobleman exclaimed, Well, well, the fellow is a humourist, and the fish we must have, but lay on lightly, and let the price be paid in our presence. After fifty lashes had been administered, Hold, hold, exclaimed the fisherman, I have a partner in this business, and it is fitting that he should receive his share. What, are there two such madcaps in the world? exclaimed the nobleman; name him, and he shall be sent for instantly. You need not go far for him, said the fisherman, you will find him at your gate, in the shape of your own porter, who would not let me in until I promised that he should have the half of whatever I received for my turbot. Oh, oh, said the nobleman, bring him up instantly, he shall receive his stipulated moiety with the strictest justice. This ceremony being finished, he discharged the porter, and amply rewarded the fisherman.

Changes of Manners.—John Locke, the celebrated writer on the Human Mind and on Government, mentions in his Journal, in the year 1679, the following as the amusements of London to be seen by a stranger:—"At Marebone and Putney he may see several persons of quality bowling two or three times a week all the summer; wrestling, in Lincoln's Inn Field every evening all the summer; bear and bull baiting, and sometimes prizes at the Bear-Garden; shooting in the long-bow and stob-ball, in Tothill-fields."

Animal Sagacity.—In the immense forests of North America, the moose-deer is hunted by the Indians with such relentless perseverance, that all the instincts of the quadruped are called forth for the preservation of its existence. Tanner, a white man who lived thirty years in the woods, thus describes the extraordinary extent of the moose's vigilance:—"In the most violent storm, when the wind, and the thunder, and the falling timber, are making the loudest and most incessant roar, if a man, either with his foot or his hand, breaks the smallest dry limb in the forest, the moose will hear it; and though he does not always run, he ceases eating, and rouses his attention to all sounds. If in the course of an hour, or thereabouts, the man neither moves nor makes the least noise, the animal may begin to feed again, but does not forget what he has heard, and is for many hours more vigilant than before."

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THE ZOOLOGICAL GARDENS.

The greater number of our readers must have heard of the Zoological Gardens, in the Regent's Park, at London, which have been established about four years, and which now comprise the finest menagerie in the world, if we regard the number and variety of the animals. The expense of this establishment, which amounts to many thousand pounds a year, is maintained by the annual subscriptions of the Fellows of the Zoological Society, and the payment (a shilling) by each person who is recommended by the ticket of a proprietor. It is not our intention to give a description of all the various animals there; but we shall from time to time notice any remarkable circumstance that occurs, as illustrative of their habits; or we shall mention any new curiosity which is purchased by the Society, or presented to it.

The *Wapiti*, in the Zoological Gardens, shed his immense horns on the 6th of February last. Their weight was twenty-one pounds five ounces. In 1831 he shed them on the 1st of February, when their weight was twenty-three pounds two ounces. In captivity, therefore, the Wapiti shows no deviation from the law of nature, which he exhibits in his own American forests,—that he should shed his horns, or bony excrescences, every year. All the deer tribe are subject to this law. Already the new horns of the Wapiti are beginning rapidly to grow—at first looking like a soft velvety substance, and gradually getting harder and more branching, till they become the gigantic antlers, which within a year will drop off, again to be renewed. It is generally considered that the horns of the deer tribe increase in size as the animal advances in age; but in the individual instance of the Wapiti of the Zoological Gardens, the horns of 1832 weigh less, by one pound thirteen ounces, than those of 1831.



[Horns of the Wapiti.]

A very large bear, of the species called the Grizzly, has been recently brought to the Zoological Gardens. This is the largest and most ferocious of the bear tribe—the most terrible quadruped of North America, whom even the Indians, accustomed as they are to every danger, fly from and fear. He is exceedingly tenacious of life, and thus, if he encounters a single Indian, there is little chance of destroying him with the generally fatal rifle. Lewis and Clark, two enterprising travellers in the wildest regions of North America, describe an encounter with a bear of this species. Six hunters went to attack him: four fired, and each wounded him. The two who had reserved their fire, hit him when he sprang forward. Before they could again load, the fearful animal was upon them. They fled to a river: four were able again to fire, concealed behind a tree, and again hit him. He turned upon them, and they were obliged to throw themselves into the water, from a bank twenty feet high. He took also to the water in chase of his hunters; and had not one of the two men who remained on shore shot him through the head, the hindmost swimmer would at least have rued the perilous adventure.

The Brown Bear of the northern parts of Europe is not so ferocious as the Grizzly Bear, but of prodigious strength. Mr. Lloyd, in his Northern Field Sports, says, "he walks with facility on his hind legs, and in that position can bear the heaviest burthens." Indeed Mr. Neilson (a Swede) says, "a bear has been seen walking on his hinder feet along a small tree that stretched across a river, bearing a dead horse in his fore-paws."



THE WEEK.

April 1.—The anniversary of the birth of the celebrated philosopher, René Des Cartes, who was born at La Haye, in Touraine, in 1596. When a child he was so remarkable for the anxiety he showed to know the *cause* of every thing, that his father used to call him his young philosopher. He entered the army when very young; and continued to serve for some years, but zealously pursued his mathematical and other studies all the time. An anecdote, illustrative of the extent of his acquirements under apparently unfavourable circumstances, is given in 'The Pursuit of Knowledge under Difficulties.' "He happened to be in garrison with his regiment at the town of Breda, in the Netherlands, when, walking out one morning, he observed a crowd of people assembled around a placard or advertisement which was stuck up on the wall. Finding that it was written in the Dutch language, which he did not understand (for he was a native of Touraine, in France), he inquired of a person whom he saw reading it what it meant. The individual to whom he addressed his inquiries happened to be the Principal of the University of Dort, a man of distinguished mathematical attainments; and it was with something of a sneer that he informed the young officer, in reply to his question, that the paper contained the announcement of a difficult geometrical problem, of which the proposer challenged

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the most able men of the city to attempt the solution. Not repulsed, however, by the tone and manner of the learned Professor, Des Cartes requested to be favoured with a translation of the placard, which he had no sooner received than he calmly remarked that he thought he should be able to answer the challenge. Accordingly next day he presented himself again before Beckman (that was the name of the Professor) with a complete solution of the problem, greatly to the astonishment of that distinguished person." At last Des Cartes left the army, and travelled through a great part of Europe, visiting England among other countries. He then fixed his residence in Holland, where he wrote the greater number of his works. They relate to metaphysics, geometry, and various departments of natural philosophy. He is now principally remembered for the impulse which his works gave to the study of metaphysics in Germany, and for his ideas being now, in a great degree, the foundation of what is called the Ideal School of Philosophy, as opposed to the Sensual, or Material. His celebrated axiom was "*Cogito ergo sum*," (I think, therefore, I exist). His astronomical speculations were very singular and extravagant. He explained the constitution of the heavens by means of a multitude of vortices, or elementary whirlpools, of which the sun and every other fixed star, according to him, had one, forming as it were its system, and supporting and keeping in motion the other lighter bodies that circle round it. Notwithstanding these fancies, Des Cartes was a most profound and ingenious mathematician; and the science of optics is also greatly indebted to him. Having been invited by Christina, Queen of Sweden, to take up his residence in Stockholm, he repaired to that capital in 1648; but died there of an inflammation of the lungs on the 11th of February, 1650, in the fifty-fourth year of his age.

April 1.—*All-Fools'-Day*, like many other days that were once observed by most people, has no honours now but in the gaiety of school-boys. The old custom of sending individuals on this day on a fool's errand is not peculiar to England. Scotland has her *April gowk*, and France her *Poisson d'Avril* (April fish). It is probable that the custom is a relic of a high and general Pagan festival, in which the wildest spirit of frolic expressed the universal gladness. It is to be remembered that the year anciently began about the time of the vernal equinox, when the awakening of all the powers of nature from their wintry sleep—the leafing of trees, the budding of flowers, and the singing of birds—made men look forward with joy to a season of long days and sunny skies. In simple ages rough jokes, given and taken without feelings of unkindness, form one of the most usual expressions of hilarity. There is a festival amongst the Hindoos, called the *Huli*, which is held in March, in honour of the new year, in the observance of which the practice of sending persons on errands which are to end in disappointment, forms a prominent feature. This circumstance would show that the custom, which still remains with us, is one which has its origin in remote ages, and is derived from a common source, accessible alike to the Hindoo and the Briton.

April 2.—On this day, in the year 1578, was born at Folkstone, in Kent, Dr. William Harvey, the discoverer of the circulation of the blood. Harvey published this important discovery in 1620. Before this time it was universally believed that the arteries, or vessels through which the blood flows from the heart, did not contain blood at all, but only air; and, indeed, the word artery was originally used to signify the windpipe, and an air-tube. The body, it was thought, was fed with blood entirely through the veins, which carried it at last to the heart, where it was in some way or other absorbed or drunk up. Thus, one of our old poets, Phineas Fletcher, in a curious allegorical poem, descriptive of the body and mind of man, which he entitles 'The Purple Island,' written (although not published) before Harvey announced his discovery, gives the following account of the manner in which the body is watered and fertilized by the different channels that pervade it:—

"Nor is there any part in all this land,
But is a little isle; for thousand brooks
In azure channels glide on silver sand;
Their serpent windings and deceiving crooks,
Circling about and watering all the plain,
Empty themselves into the *all-drinking main*,
And creeping forward slide, but ne'er return again."

Nobody imagined that there was any *circulation* of the blood, till Harvey demonstrated that the same blood which the veins brought *to* the heart the arteries immediately carried away again *from* it. Harvey lived for many years to enjoy the glory of this discovery; dying at Hampstead, in Essex, on the 3d of June, 1658, in the eighty-first year of his age.

EXCELLENCE NOT LIMITED BY STATION.

THERE is not a more common error of self-deception than a habit of considering our stations in life so ill-suited to our powers, as to be unworthy of calling out a full and proper exercise of our virtues and talents.

As society is constituted, there cannot be *many* employments which demand very brilliant talents, or great delicacy of taste, for their proper discharge. The great bulk of society is composed of plain, plodding men, who move "right onwards" to the sober duties of their calling. At the same time the universal good demands that those whom nature has greatly endowed should be called from the ordinary track to take up higher and more ennobling duties. England, happily for us, is full of bright examples of the greatest men raised from the meanest situations; and the education which England is now beginning to bestow upon her children will multiply these examples. But a partial and incomplete diffusion of knowledge will also multiply the victims of that evil principle which postpones the discharge of present and immediate duties, for the anticipations of some destiny above the labours of a handicraftsman, or the calculations of a shopkeeper. Years and experience, which afford us the opportunity of comparing our own powers with those of others, will, it is true, correct the inconsistent expectations which arise from a want of capacity to set the right value on ourselves. But the wisdom thus gained may come too late. The object of desire may be found decidedly unattainable, and existence is then wasted in a sluggish contempt of present duties; the spirit is broken; the temper is soured; habits of misanthropy and personal neglect creep on; and life eventually becomes a tedious and miserable pilgrimage of never-satisfied desires. Youth, however, is happily not without its guide, if it will take a warning from example. Of the highly-gifted men whose abandonment of their humble calling has been the apparent beginning of a distinguished career, we do not recollect an instance of one who did not pursue that humble calling with credit and success until the occasion presented itself for exhibiting those superior powers which nature occasionally bestows. Benjamin Franklin was as valuable to his master as a printer's apprentice, as he was to his country as a statesman and a negotiator, or to the world as a philosopher. Had he not been so, indeed, it may be doubted whether he ever would have taken his rank among the first statesmen and philosophers of his time. One of the great secrets of advancing in life is to be ready to take advantage of those opportunities which, if a man really possesses superior abilities, are sure to present themselves some time or other. As the poet expresses it, "There is a *tide* in the affairs of men,"—an ebbing and flowing of the unstable element on which they are borne,—and if this be only "taken at the flood," the "full sea" is gained on which "the voyage of their life" may be made with ease and the prospect of a happy issue.

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But we should remember, that for those who are not *ready* to embark at the moment when their tide is at its flood, that tide may never serve again; and nothing is more likely to be a hinderance at such a moment than the distress which is certain to follow a neglect of our ordinary business.

ISAAC ASHFORD.

[From Crabbe's Parish Register.]

ONE of the most eminent of our modern poets died a few weeks ago, the Reverend George Crabbe. Mr. Crabbe was born in 1754, at Aldborough in Suffolk, and, consequently, at the time of his death, had reached the advanced age of seventy-eight. Although his last work, his Tales of the Hall, in two volumes, was published so lately as 1819, he had been for many years by far the oldest of our living poets; for his first production, The Library, was published so long ago as the year 1781. His poetical career, therefore, reckoning from this commencement to his death, had extended over more than the long space of half a century. A second poem, entitled The Village, however, which quickly followed the Library, was the only additional work which he produced during the first half of this period. It was not till 1807 that he again came before the world as an author, by the publication of two volumes of Poems, comprising the Parish Register and other pieces. This publication was followed by another poem, entitled The Borough, in 1810; by two volumes of Tales, in 1812; and, as already mentioned, by his 'Tales of the Hall,' the last work which he gave to the press, in 1819. Mr. Crabbe had been Rector of Trowbridge, in Wiltshire, for eighteen years before his death.

Notwithstanding considerable peculiarities, and some obvious faults of manner, it is impossible to peruse any of Crabbe's productions without feeling yourself to be in the hands of a writer of great power, and a true poet. In some of his pieces he has displayed both a soaring imagination and a delicate sense of beauty; but he is most popularly known as the poet of poverty and wretchedness,—the stern explorer and describer of the deepest and darkest recesses of human suffering and crime. Perhaps he has occasionally painted the gloom of the regions in which he was thus accustomed to wander with somewhat of exaggeration; but it would be easy to select abundant proof from his writings, that if he delineated with an unsparing pencil both the miseries and the vices of the poor, he could also sympathize with their enjoyments and estimate their virtues as cordially as any man that ever lived. The following passage from the Third Part of his Parish Register, that in which he reviews the list of burials, is an admirably drawn picture of a lofty character in humble life. The writer, it will be observed, speaks in the character of the clergyman of the parish. He has related the lives and deaths of two of his female parishioners, after which he proceeds thus:—

Next to these ladies, but in nought allied,
A noble peasant, *Isaac Ashford*, died;
Noble he was, contemning all things mean,
His truth unquestioned, and his soul serene.
Of no man's presence *Isaac* felt afraid;
At no man's question *Isaac* looked dismayed:
Shame knew him not, he dreaded no disgrace;
Truth, simple truth, was written in his face;
Yet while the serious thought his soul approved,
Cheerful he seemed, and gentleness he loved.
To bliss domestic he his heart resigned,
And with the firmest, had the fondest mind:
Were others joyful, he looked smiling on,
And gave allowance where he needed none;
Good he refused with future ill to buy,
Nor knew a joy that caused reflection's sigh;
A friend to virtue, his unclouded breast
No envy stung, no jealousy distressed;
Yet far was he from stoic pride removed
He felt humanely, and he warmly loved.
I marked his action when his infant died,
And his old neighbour for offence was tried;
The still tears, stealing down that furrowed cheek,
Spoke pity, plainer than the tongue can speak.
If pride were his, 'twas not their vulgar pride,
Who, in their base contempt, the great deride;
Nor pride in learning, though my clerk agreed,
If fate should call him, *Ashford* might succeed;
Nor pride in rustic skill, although we knew
None his superior, and his equals few:
But if that spirit in his soul had place,
It was the jealous pride that shuns disgrace;
A pride in honest fame, by virtue gained,
In sturdy boys, to virtuous labours trained;
Pride in the power that guards his country's coast,
And all that Englishmen enjoy and boast;
Pride in a life that slander's tongue defied,
In fact, a noble passion, misnamed *Pride*.

He had no party's rage, no sectary's whim;
Christian and countryman was *all* with him:
True to his church he came; no Sunday shower
Kept him at home in that important hour;
Nor his firm feet could one persuading sect
By the strong glare of their new light direct;
'On hope, in mine own sober light, I gaze,
'But should be blind and lose it in your blaze.

In times severe, when many a sturdy swain
Felt it his pride, his comfort, to complain,
Isaac their wants would soothe, his own would hide,
And feel in *that* his comfort and his pride.

At length, he found, when seventy years were run,
His strength departed, and his labour done;
When, save his honest fame, he kept no more,
But lost his wife, and saw his children poor;
'Twas then a spark of—say not discontent—
Struck on his mind, and thus he gave it vent:—

'Kind are your laws ('tis not to be denied)
'That in yon house for ruined age provide;
'And they are just;—when young, we give you all,
'And then for comforts in our weakness call.
'Why then this proud reluctance to be fed,
'To join your Poor and eat the Parish bread?
'But yet I linger, loathe with him to feed,
'Who gains his plenty by the sons of need;
'He who, by contract, all your Paupers took,
'And gauges stomachs with an anxious look!
'On some old master I could well depend,
'See him with joy, and thank him as a friend;
'But ill on him, who doles the day's supply,
'And counts our chances, *who* at night may die;
'Yet help me, Heaven! and let me not complain
'Of what befalls me, but the fate sustain.'

Such were his thoughts, and so resigned he grew,
Daily he placed the Workhouse in his view;
But came not there; for sudden was his fate,
He dropt expiring at his cottage-gate.

I feel his absence in the hours of prayer,
And view his seat, and sigh for Isaac there;
I see no more those white locks thinly spread
Round the bald polish of that honoured head;
No more that awful glance on playful wight,
Compelled to kneel and tremble at the sight;
To fold his fingers, all in dread the while,
Till Mister *Ashford* softened to a smile:
No more that meek and suppliant look in prayer,
Nor the pure faith (to give it force) are there;
But he is blest, and I lament no more
A wise good man contented to be poor.

A QUAINT SERMON.

MR. DODD was a minister who lived many years ago a few miles from Cambridge; and having several times been preaching against drunkenness, some of the Cambridge scholars (conscience, which is sharper than ten thousand witnesses, being their monitor) were very much offended, and thought he made reflections on them. Some little time after, Mr. Dodd was walking towards Cambridge, and met some of the gownsmen, who, as soon as they saw him at a distance, resolved to make some ridicule of him. As soon as he came up, they accosted him with "Your servant, sir!" He replied, "Your servant, gentlemen." They asked him if he had not been preaching very much against drunkenness of late? He answered in the affirmative. They then told him they had a favour to beg of him, and it was that he would preach a sermon to them *there*, from a text they should choose. He argued that it was an imposition, for a man ought to have some consideration before preaching. They said they would not put up with a denial, and insisted upon his preaching immediately

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(in a hollow tree which stood by the road side) from the word M.A.L.T. He then began, "Beloved, let me crave your attention. I am a little man—come at a short notice—to preach a short sermon—from a short text—to a thin congregation—in an unworthy pulpit. Beloved, my text is *Malt*. I cannot divide it into sentences, there being none; nor into words, there being but one; I must therefore, of necessity, divide it into letters, which I find in my text to be these four—M.A.L.T

M—is Moral.
A—is Allegorical.
L—is Literal.
T—is Theological.

"The moral, is to teach y› rusticks good manners: therefore M—my Masters, A ll of you, L—Leave off, T—Tippling.

"The Allegorical is, when thing is spoken of, and another meant. The thing sp n of is Malt. The thing meant is the spirit of Mal which you rusticks make, M—your Meat, A—your A el, L—your Liberty, and T—your Trust.

"The Literal is, according to the letters, M—Much, A—Ale, L—Little, T—Trust.

"The Theological is, according to the effects it works—in some, M—Murder—in others, A—Adultery—in all, L—Looseness of Life, and in many, T—Treachery.

"I shall conclude the subject, First, by way of Exhortation. M—my Masters, A—All of you, L—Listen, T—To my Text. Second, by way of Caution. M—my Masters, A—All of you, L—Look for, T—the Truth. Third, by way of communicating the Truth, which is this:—A Drunkard is the annoyance of modesty; the spoil of civility; the destruction of reason; the robber's agent; the alehouse's benefactor; his wife's sorrow; his children's trouble; his own shame; his neighbour's scoff; a walking swill-bowl; the picture of a beast; the monster of a man!"

DESCRIPTION OF POLAND.

THE kingdom of Poland, which has lately been the theatre of so disastrous a war, was established in 1815, by the treaty of Vienna, and was composed of four territories placed respectively under the following sovereignties, viz.:—

1. *Gallicia;* assigned to Austria.
2. *The Grand Duchy of Posen*, including the Western Palatinates bordering on Silesia; surrendered to Prussia.
3. *The city and district of Cracow;* constituted a free republic; and
4. The remainder of ancient Poland, comprising the bulk of what was before the Grand Duchy of Warsaw; made to revert to Russia.

The kingdom was divided into eight Palatinates: viz., Masovia, Cracow, Sandomir, Kalisz, Lublin, Plotsk, and Augustowa. The population, according to the last census of 1829, was, exclusive of the army, 4,088,290, which have been thus classed:—

Employed in agriculture (householders)	1,871,259
Their families and servants	2,221,188
In manufactures	140,377
Their families	358,035
Tradesmen	49,888
Their families	131,331
Landed Proprietors	4,205
Copyholders	1,886
Freeholders in towns	41,654
Employed under government	8,414
Patients in the 592 public hospitals	5,376
Prisoners in the 76 prisons	7,926

The population of the towns is, to that of the country, as one to five. The towns are small and far removed from each other, which has been a main cause of retarding the progress of civilization, commerce, and manufactures. There are only thirteen towns in Poland containing upwards of 10,000 people each: viz., Warsaw, containing about 120,000; Dantzic, about 50,000; Wilna, 30,000; Lemberg, 29,000; Cracow, 28,000; Kiev, 20,000; Posen, 20,000; Brady, 15,000; Witepsk, 13,000; Lublin, 13,000, Mahilev, 12,500; Kalisch, 12,000; Kharkof, 11,000; the population of the whole thirteen being equalled by the aggregate population of three or four of the Lancashire or Yorkshire towns. The maps contain a multitude of names of miserable wooden villages, inhabited merely by the peasant cultivators of the soil, and by a few shop-keeping Jews. Of the 451 towns of the kingdom, 353 are more than half, and 83 wholly, of wood; and but a very few towns contain a supply of the ordinary articles of consumption by persons in easy circumstances. The common articles of ladies' wearing apparel are obliged to be procured either from Warsaw or Vienna, and it is common, in great families, to keep memorandum-books, in which the inmates of the family enter their wants, from time to time, which are supplied altogether at intervals of some months. In respect of all those comforts and conveniences of life which denote the progress of refinement, Poland is, perhaps, behind all other nations of Christian Europe.

The rate of increase of the Polish population, since 1815, has been stated at 100,000 individuals annually, or about two and a half per cent.

The Catholic religion is specially protected by the government, without imposing any disabilities on the members of other faiths. The Catholic establishment consists of an archbishop of Warsaw, eight bishops, and 2,740 clergy. The Greek Catholics have a bishop, and 354 priests. Next to the Roman Catholics, however, the Jews are of the most importance, and their numbers are stated to be fast increasing. They have of late been very unpopular, and have been charged with many malpractices, in monopolizing trade, and otherwise. The native writers have, for some time past, been in the habit of reproaching them as the ruin of their country, but sometimes, possibly, with more prejudice than reason. The religious statistics are as follows:—

Roman Catholics	3,400,000
Greek Church	100,000
Lutherans	150,000
Calvinists	5,000
Jews	400,000
Other Sects	5,000
	4,060,000

The class of nobles in Poland is to that of the plebeians as one to thirteen. But this class is composed of persons of such various degrees of wealth, that the poorer nobles are often glad to be employed as stewards by the richer, and their wives and daughters take occupations as humble as nurses and ladies' maids. The peasantry are still in a state of modified slavery, or villeinage, cultivating the land for the benefit of their lords, and not being allowed to remove from it without giving up their tenements. They are assigned a certain portion of the produce of the estate; the whole live and dead stock upon which belongs to the landlord, who lends the use thereof to the peasants, compelling them to take care of, and account for, it. The peasantry in the Grand Duchy of Warsaw have been nominally emancipated; but their condition has hitherto hardly been sensibly ameliorated thereby.

The exports of Poland consist chiefly of corn, cattle, timber, and other articles of raw produce; and the imports are wines, colonial produce, and articles of luxury. The manufactures of woollen cloth, linens, carpets, and leather have increased since 1815, and the breweries and distilleries are on a very extensive scale. Agriculture is, however, by far the largest source of occupation for the people; but suffers, at the present time, from a depression of prices, and has permanently to contend against the effects of a six months' winter of frost and snow. The proximity to the cold regions of Russia, and the exposure to the sharp north-east winds from Siberia and the polar regions, render the climate incomparably colder than that of England, though the situation of Poland is not more northward. In the summer the heat is very great, the forests obstructing the free circulation of air.

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Power of Steam.—It is on the rivers, and the boatman may repose on his oars, it is in highways, and begins to exert itself along the courses of land-conveyance; it is at the bottom of mines, a thousand feet below the earth's surface; it is in the mill, and in the workshops of the trades. It rows, it pumps, it excavates, it carries, it draws, it lifts, it hammers, it spins, it weaves, it prints.—*From Webster's Lectures.*

A Popular Error.—It is not at all an uncommon thing for even well-informed people to consider one event the cause of another, because the one has immediately preceded the other in the order of time. A curious instance of this error occurred in the last century. The fish, on which many of the inhabitants of Norway depended for subsistence, suddenly vanished from their coasts; the practice of inoculation for the small-pox had just then been introduced, and was instantly fixed upon as the cause of the calamity; and as the people considered the risk of that disorder a trifle in comparison with starvation, nothing could exceed their righteous indignation against all who undertook to prevent their taking the small-pox.

Instruction and *Amusement* are more blended than the world in general is apt to imagine. Uninstructive amusement may be afforded for a moment by a passing jest or a ludicrous anecdote, by which no knowledge is conveyed to the mind of the hearer or the reader; but the man who would amuse others for an hour, either by his writing or his conversation, must tell his hearers or his readers something that they do not know, or suggest to them some new reflection upon the knowledge they have previously acquired. The more the knowledge bears upon their pursuits, upon their occupations, or upon their interests, the more attractive it will be, and the more entitled to be called useful.

The Secret of great Workers.—M. Dumont, in his 'Recollections of Mirabeau,' the leading orator of the French Revolution, thus describes the persevering industry of our illustrious countryman, Sir Samuel Romilly:—"Romilly, always tranquil and orderly, has an incessant activity. He never loses a minute: he applies all his mind to what he is about. Like the hand of a watch, he never stops, although his equal movements in the same way almost escape observation."

Devotion of a great Mind to its Duties.—Milton, the poet of Paradise Lost, who, during an active life in the most troublesome times, was unceasing in the cultivation of his understanding, thus describes his own habits:—"Those morning haunts are where they should be, at home; not sleeping or concocting the surfeits of an irregular feast, but up and stirring; in winter, often ere the sound of any bell awake men to labour or devotion; in summer as oft with the bird that first rouses, or not much tardier, to read good authors, or cause them to be read, till the attention be weary, or memory have its full fraught; then with useful and generous labours preserving the body's health and hardiness, to render lightsome, clear, and not lumpish obedience to the mind, to the cause of religion and our country's liberty."

An era is fast approaching, when no writer will be read by the great majority, save and except those who can effect that for bales of manuscript, that the hydrostatic screw performs for bales of cotton, by condensing that matter into a period that before occupied a page.—*Colton.*

Two painters undertook a portrait of Hannibal; one of them painted a full likeness of him, and gave him two eyes, whereas disease had deprived him of one. The other painted him in profile, but with his blind side from the spectators. He severely reprimanded the first, but handsomely rewarded the second.

The petty sovereign of an insignificant tribe in North America every morning stalks out of his hovel, bids the sun good morrow, and points out to him with his finger the course he is to take for the day.

When the air-balloon was first discovered, some one flippantly asked Dr. Franklin what was the use of it? The doctor answered this question by asking another: "What is the use of a new-born infant? It may become a man."

The Chinese affect to despise European ingenuity, but they cannot mend a common watch; when it is out of order they say it is dead, and barter it away for a living one.

A friend called on Michael Angelo, who was finishing a statue. Some time afterwards he called again; the sculptor was still at his work. His friend, looking at the figure, exclaimed, You have been idle since I saw you last. By no means, replied the sculptor, I have retouched this part, and polished that; I have softened this feature, and brought out this muscle; I have given more expression to this lip, and more energy to this limb. Well, well, said his friend, but all these are trifles. It may be so, replied Angelo, but recollect that trifles make perfection, and that perfection is no trifle.

A POSTSCRIPT TO OUR FIRST READERS.

IT is said that amongst the Mahomedans the following curious custom is observed:—They never destroy any fragment of paper, however small, which chance may place in their way. For this custom, which may appear in its practice to be ridiculous, a remarkable reason is assigned:—"It is the duty," say the Mahomedan teachers, "of every true believer to throw away no opportunity of communicating to his fellow-creatures a knowledge of the one God and of his Prophet. The few words which express the short and comprehensive article of our faith may be written on any the smallest fragment of paper: let not true believers lose this opportunity which Allah himself presents to them! neglect not, destroy not that fragment. Let the word of the Prophet be written upon it, and the winds of Heaven will, under the direction of Providence, convey it into the hand of some one whose memory needs to be refreshed from the fountain of Truth, or whose mind's eye hath not seen the light of Heaven."

In the desire, and certainly in the power of enlightening their fellow-creatures, the Christian need fear no comparison with the Mahomedan world; but, in the mode of accomplishing this object, the custom alluded to affords a lesson for study, and an example for imitation.

By a Society which has undertaken the task of contributing, as far as lies in its power, to the diffusion of useful knowledge, no means should be neglected by which instructive amusement can be afforded. Timid (although well-meaning) persons might perhaps be inclined to censure such a society, should it set the example of applying the powers of the press to the production of a Penny Periodical Magazine. They might object that the instrument which is intended for good might be used for evil; that publications in form so cheap as to be accessible to the lowest class of readers, would soon fall into the hands of the lowest class of writers. We doubt this, although we know it is the opinion of many excellent persons; we have good and substantial reasons to assign for our doubts, but into those reasons we shall not now enter; the time for them is past. The evil (if it be an evil) is already in being. The demand of the public has already called into existence penny periodical publications, of which eight or ten have established a regular sale. It will be cheering intelligence to those who would have dissuaded from this undertaking, that the most noxious of them have been hitherto the least successful. The channel, then, is open. Through its course must flow much of the information conveyed to the minds of a large and increasing class of readers. We are called upon to pour into it, as far as we are able, clear waters from the pure and healthy springs of knowledge. That duty we will not neglect: in the attempt to fulfil it we think that we ought not to fail.

The success of our undertaking will be the measure of its utility.

LONDON:—CHARLES KNIGHT, PALL-MALL EAST.

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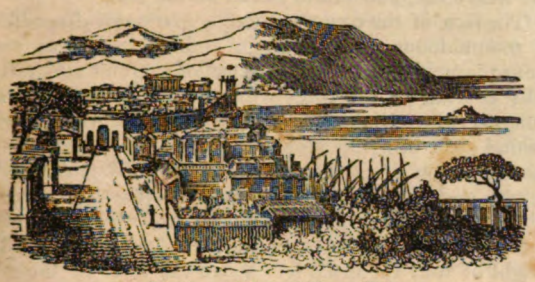
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POMPEII.



[Restored View of Pompeii.]

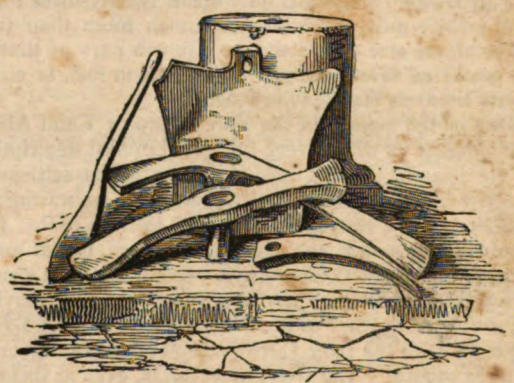
*** The volume on 'Pompeii,' lately published in the Library of Entertaining Knowledge, contains every authentic detail of the destruction of that city by an eruption of Mount Vesuvius, A.D. 79; and the second volume, which will be shortly published, will complete the description of the remains of public and private buildings, and of articles of domestic use, which have been discovered in the ruins. The following observations on this interesting subject are from an intelligent correspondent, who has had the advantage of visiting the spot.

IT is certainly surprising, that this most interesting city should have remained undiscovered until so late a period, and that antiquaries and learned men should have so long and materially erred about its situation. In many places masses of ruins, portions of the buried theatres, temples, and houses were not two feet below the surface of the soil; the country people were continually digging up pieces of worked marble, and other antique objects; in several spots they had even laid open the outer walls of the town; and yet men did not find out *what it was*, that peculiar, isolated mound of cinders and ashes, earth and pumice-stone, covered. There is another circumstance which increases the wonder of Pompeii remaining so long concealed. A subterranean canal, cut from the river Sarno, traverses the city, and is seen darkly and silently gliding on under the temple of Isis. This is said to have been cut towards the middle of the fifteenth century, to supply the contiguous town of the Torre dell'Annunziata with fresh water; it probably ran anciently in the same channel. But, cutting it, or clearing it, workmen must have crossed under Pompeii from one side to the other.

As you walk round the walls of the city, and see how the volcanic matter is piled upon it in one heap, it looks as though the hand of man had purposely buried it, by carrying and throwing over it the volcanic matter. This matter does not spread in any direction beyond the town, over the fine plain which gently declines towards the bay of Naples. The volcanic eruption was so confined in its course or its fall, as to bury Pompeii, and only Pompeii: for the shower of ashes and pumice-stone which descended in the immediate neighbourhood certainly made but a slight difference in the elevation of the plain.

Where a town has been buried by lava, like Herculaneum, the process is easily traced. You can follow the black, hardened lava from the cone of the mountain to the sea, whose waters it invaded for "many a rood," and those who have seen the lava in its liquid state, when it flows on like a river of molten iron, can conceive at once how it would bury every thing it found in its way. There is often a confusion of ideas, among those who have not had the advantages of visiting these interesting places, as to the matter which covers Pompeii and Herculaneum: they fancy they were both buried by lava. Herculaneum was so, and the work of excavating there, was like digging in a quarry of very hard stone. The descent into the places cleared is like the descent into a quarry or mine, and you are always under ground, lighted by torches.

But Pompeii was covered by loose mud, pumice-stone, and ashes, over which, in the course of centuries, there collected vegetable soil. Beneath this shallow soil, the whole is very crumbly and easy to dig, in few spots more difficult than one of our common gravel-pits. The matter excavated is carried off in carts, and thrown outside of the town; and in times when the labour is carried on with activity, as cart after cart withdraws with the earth that covered them, you see houses entire, except their roofs, which have nearly always fallen in, make their appearance, and, by degrees, a whole street opens to the sun-shine or the shower, just like the streets of any inhabited neighbouring town. It is curious to observe, as the volcanic matter is removed, that the houses are principally built of lava, the more ancient product of the same Vesuvius, whose later results buried and concealed Pompeii for so many ages.



[Implements of building found at Pompeii.]

In the autumn of 1822 I saw Pompeii under very interesting circumstances. It was a few days after an eruption of Vesuvius, which I had witnessed, and which was considered by far the grandest eruption of recent times. From Portici, our road was coated with lapilla or pumice-stone, and a fine impalpable powder, of a palish grey hue, that had been discharged from the mountain, round whose base we were winding. In many places this coating was more than a foot deep, but it was pretty equally spread, not accumulating in any particular spot. As we drove into Pompeii our carriage wheels crushed this matter, which contained the principal components of what had buried the city: it was lodged on the edges of the houses' walls, and on their roofs, (where the Neapolitan government had furnished them with any); it lay inches thick on the tops of the pillars and truncated columns of the ancient temples; it covered all the floors of the houses that had no roofs, and concealed the mosaics. In the amphitheatre, where we sat down to refresh ourselves, we were obliged to make the guides clear it away with shovels—it was everywhere. Looking from the upper walls of the amphitheatre, we saw the whole country covered with it—trees and all were coated with the pale-grey plaster, nor did it disappear for many months after.

Some ignorant fellows at Naples pretended the fine ashes, or powder, contained gold! Neapolitans began

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to collect it. They found no gold, but it turned out to be an excellent thing for cleaning and polishing plate.

This dust continued to be blown from the mountain many days after the eruption had ceased. It once made a pretty figure of me! I was riding up the Posilippo road when it came on to rain; the rain brought down and gave consistency to the dust, which adhered to my black coat and pantaloons, until I looked as if I had been rolled in plaster of Paris.

But it travelled farther than Posilippo, for a friend of mine, an officer in the navy, assured me it had fallen with rain on the deck of his ship, when between three and four hundred miles from Naples and Mount Vesuvius. There is an old story, that during one of the great eruptions of this mountain, or Etna, cinders were thrown as far as Constantinople: by substituting the fine powder I have alluded to, for cinders, the story becomes not improbable. C. M.

VAN DIEMEN'S LAND.

[Concluded from our last.]

The island of Van Diemen's Land lies immediately to the south of the vast continent of New Holland, from which it is separated by the narrow channel called Bass's Strait. If New Holland be regarded as a great full bag or sack, Bass's Strait will represent the neck, where it is drawn together and tied close, and Van Diemen's Land the small bunch or gathering made beyond the string by the mere lip of the sack. While New Holland is rather more than half as large as all Europe, the extent of Van Diemen's Land is only about twenty-three thousand square miles, which is not much more than two-thirds of the size of Ireland, or a fourth part of that of the island of Great Britain. The one, in fact, is about eighty times as large as the other.

One of the papers in the Van Diemen's Land Almanac presents us with a very full geographical description of the island. It was divided soon after its settlement into two great counties, Buckinghamshire, embracing the southern, and Cornwall, the northern portion of it. But the division which is now chiefly recognised, is that made in 1827 into eight Police districts, each under the charge of a paid magistrate. In the first of these, occupying the south-west corner of the island, stands Hobart Town, the capital, on the river Derwent, and about twenty miles from its mouth. The river, however, is, even at this distance from the sea, of considerable width, and the water is quite salt. The town stands upon a gently rising ground, and covers rather more than a square mile. Its streets are wide, and intersect each other at right angles. It contains several government buildings, a parish church, and other places of worship; a government school for the poor, and several Sunday schools; two public banks; and several libraries. Among its manufactories Hobart Town possesses a distillery, several breweries and tanneries, two timber mills, several flour mills worked by steam and water, and two or three soap and candle works. The population of the town and suburbs, including the convicts and the military, is above seven thousand. This, we believe, is about half the amount of the whole population of the island.

The other towns already founded in Van Diemen's Land, are, Launceston, on the river Tamar, about a hundred and twenty miles north from the capital, containing about a thousand inhabitants; New Norfolk, or Elizabeth Town, a place of considerable traffic, and also the centre of a rich agricultural district, standing on the Derwent, about twenty-two miles higher up than Hobart Town; Richmond, fourteen miles from the capital; Sorell Town, or Pitt Water, and Brighton, two other townships in the same vicinity; Bothwell, Oatlands, Campbell Town, Ross, Perth, and George Town, all considerably advanced settlements. Many other stations, however, have been marked out for towns, although scarcely yet begun to be built upon. Numerous farm-houses, also, and other detached residences, many of them standing in the midst of enclosed fields, gardens, and orchards, have been built in all directions. A single agricultural association, called the Van Diemen's Land Company, possess a continuous tract of above three hundred thousand acres, in the north-west part of the island. About four hundred and fifty persons reside on this property. There are two government settlements for persons convicted of crimes in the colony, Macquarie Harbour on the west coast, and Maria Island on the east.

The face of the country, though extremely diversified, is mountainous on the whole, and, especially as seen from the south, presents a prospect of singular sublimity; hills covered to the ridge with trees, occasionally intermingled with a bare rocky eminence, appearing to rise behind each other in endless succession. Some of the mountains on the south coast are five thousand feet in height, and during a great part of the year are covered with snow. Mount Wellington, or the Table Mountain, a few miles to the west of Hobart Town, rises to the height of four thousand feet above the level of the sea. The interior, however, contains many extensive plains quite unencumbered with wood. Even the western coast, where the scenery in general is bold and desolate, presents many protected and fertile spots. The bays and harbours around the coast are numerous and excellent. In this respect Hobart Town especially is most favourably situated. The principal rivers are the Derwent, the Huon, and the Tamar, all navigable. The Derwent, even at New Norfolk, above forty miles from the sea, is as wide as the Thames at Battersea. The scenery on both sides of this noble stream is described as being of the richest beauty. The second-rate and inferior rivers are numerous, fertilizing every part of the country, and falling into the sea along the whole extent of the coast. In the heart of the island are several lakes, from which many of the rivers take their rise.

Much of the native timber of Van Diemen's Land is excellent for all building purposes; and others of the woods are esteemed for ornamental cabinet-work. All the trees are evergreens. The shrubs are of great variety and beauty; but present as yet an almost unexamined field to the botanist. As to fruits, none of any value have been found native to this island; but on the other hand, every sort of fruit, herb, or vegetable, that grows in England, grows still better here.

In respect of climate, Van Diemen's Land enjoys the happiest medium between the extremes of heat and cold, the thermometer rarely falling below 40 degrees in winter, or rising above 70 degrees in summer. During the winter months of June, July, and August, the frosts are sometimes severe, and occasionally a good deal of snow falls; but it is seldom that snow lies on the ground a whole day.

Coal has been found in various places; iron-stone is believed to be abundant; lime-stone also exists in great plenty; and it is highly probable that the earth is enriched with various other mineral treasures. Of the native animals, the most formidable is the hyena, by which many of the sheep are destroyed. Wild dogs and cats of different species are also found in the woods. The kangaroo is now fast disappearing, having, although a perfectly harmless animal, been much hunted by the settlers for sport, or for the sake of its flesh and skin. There are numerous species of birds, many of them of beautiful plumage. Various descriptions of fish also abound in the bays and creeks; but, except eels, the lakes and rivers supply very few that are valuable as food. Of the reptiles found in the island, the principal are snakes, some of which are extremely venomous.

Such is an abstract of what is most important in the paper before us, which is followed by a more minute description of the parts of the island that have been brought into cultivation, in the form of an itinerary. We will now add a very few facts, selected from another paper, on the agriculture and horticulture of the colony

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The first cattle were brought to Van Diemen's Land in 1807. They were "a coarse buffalo sort of animal:" but, about nine or ten years ago, superior breeds began to be imported from England, and the colony now possesses pure Devons, Herefords, Durhams, Holdernesses, Fifeshires, &c. Horses were at first brought from New Holland; but, "in the same manner as with neat cattle," says this account, "they have since had the benefit of very superior crosses of English importations, and the colony can now boast as fine horses as even England itself. It has every sort, perhaps, that is known in the mother-country, from the heavy dray-horse to the diminutive pony, and including, what should by no means be passed in silence, blood and bone upon which thousands have been depending at Newmarket and other English race-courses." Sheep, for which both the climate and natural herbage of the country are well adapted, are now numerous and rapidly improving in quality. Pigs and poultry, of every description, thrive admirably. Most sorts of grain that are common in England, grow at least as well here. The wheat is of excellent quality, seldom weighing less than from sixty-two to sixty-four pounds per bushel. Barley and oats produce well upon good land; but will not answer on inferior soils. The average return yielded by the potato is not equal to what it yields in England; but the cultivation of this root is yet in its infancy. Turnips and mangel-wurzel are both found to do extremely well. The same may be said of English grasses and pulses of all sorts.

The export trade from this colony has, as yet, been confined to the more useful articles. Corn is sent to New South Wales, and to Swan River. Wool is already exported in considerable quantities, and is likely to become every year more and more the staple production of the island. Whale-fishing and the manufacture of oil are rapidly becoming trades of considerable importance. A good deal of mimosa bark, for tanning, is also sent to England; and salt meats, hides, and dairy produce will probably soon be added to the list of exported commodities.

The regulations at present in force for the disposal of land, by grant or sale, were issued in 1828. The main principle upon which they are grounded is, that "settlers should not receive a greater extent of land than they are capable of improving, and that grants should not be made to persons who are desirous only of disposing of them." Lands are accordingly granted in square miles, in the proportion of one square mile, or 640 acres, for every £500 sterling of capital which the applicant can immediately command. Of this capital, however, a portion may consist of live stock and instruments of husbandry. Upon the land thus granted a quit-rent is imposed at the rate of £5 per cent. on the estimated value of the land, the payment to commence at the expiration of seven years from the date of the grant, when the settler will also receive his title-deeds. The smallest quantity of land granted in this way to an individual is 320 acres, and the largest, 2560 acres, or four square miles. Lands may also be obtained by purchase, being advertised for that purpose, and sold to the person making the highest tender.

We will, in conclusion, mention a few of the more interesting particulars, supplied by the various lists in the little volume before us; these are indicative of the rapid progress of civilization. In addition to the three banks in Hobart Town we find a fourth, called the Cornwall bank, established at Launceston. There is at Hobart Town a Mechanics' Institute, of which the Governor is patron, and the Chief Justice, president. Among the religious and philanthropic institutions of this capital are, a Bible Society, of which the Governor is president; a Presbyterian Missionary Society; a Wesleyan Missionary Society; a Benevolent and Strangers' Friend Society; and a Sunday School Union, having four schools in its connexion, containing in all about 250 children. Besides the Government Gazette, there are three other weekly newspapers published in Hobart Town, and a fourth at Launceston. The Almanac closes with a Directory for Hobart Town; in which, besides merchants, general dealers, official, clerical, and other professional characters, we find the names of civil engineers, livery-stable keepers, watchmakers, midwives, shoemakers, bricklayers, milliners, portrait painters, and engravers, chemists and druggists, pastry-cooks, confectioners, glaziers, plumbers, house and sign painters, hatters, upholsterers, cabinet-makers and undertakers, coopers, boat-builders, auctioneers, goldsmiths, and working-jewellers, music teachers, tailors, butchers, brewers, hosiers and glovers, ironmongers, brass and iron founders, tinmen and blacksmiths, printers, saddlers, bakers, hair-dressers. It would be curious to compare this list with the population of an English town of seven thousand people three centuries ago!

LOST CAMEL.

A DERVISE was journeying alone in the desert, when two merchants suddenly met him: "You have lost a camel," said he to the merchants. "Indeed we have," they replied. "Was he not blind in his right eye, and lame in his left leg?" said the dervise. "He was," replied the merchants. "Had he lost a front tooth?" said the dervise. "He had," rejoined the merchants. "And was he not loaded with honey on one side, and wheat on the other?" "Most certainly he was," they replied; "and as you have seen him so lately, and marked him so particularly, you can, in all probability, conduct us unto him." "My friends," said the dervise, "I have never seen your camel, nor ever heard of him, but from you." "A pretty story, truly!" said the merchants, "but where are the jewels, which formed a part of his cargo?" "I have neither seen your camel nor your jewels," repeated the dervise. On this, they seized his person, and forthwith hurried him before the Cadi, where, on the strictest search, nothing could be found upon him, nor could any evidence whatever be adduced to convict him, either of falsehood or of theft. They were then about to proceed against him as a sorcerer, when the dervise, with great calmness, thus addressed the Court: "I have been much amused with your surprise, and own that there has been some ground for your suspicions; but I have lived long, and alone; and I can find ample scope for observation, even in a desert. I knew that I had crossed the track of a camel that had strayed from its owner, because I saw no mark of any human footstep on the same route; I knew that the animal was blind in one eye, because it had cropped the herbage only on one side of its path; and I perceived that it was lame in one leg, from the faint impression which that particular foot had produced upon the sand; I concluded that the animal had lost one tooth, because wherever it had grazed, a small tuft of herbage was left uninjured in the centre of its bite. As to that which formed the burden of the beast, the busy ants informed me that it was corn on the one side, and the clustering flies that it was honey on the other."

Science preceding Art.—When the principles of any science are become common to all the world, these principles lead to inventions, nearly, if not altogether similar, by different persons having no communication with each other. A remarkable instance of this is given by Judge Story, in his address to the Boston Mechanics' Institute:—

"A beautiful improvement had been made in the double-speeder of the cotton-spinning machine by one of our ingenious countrymen. The originality of the invention was established by the most satisfactory evidence. The defendant, however, called an Englishman as a witness, who had been but a short time in the country, and who testified most explicitly to the existence of a like invention in the improved machinery in England. Against such positive proof there was much difficulty in proceeding. The testimony, though doubted, could not be discredited; and the trial was postponed to another term, for the purpose of procuring evidence to rebut it. An agent was despatched to England for this and other objects; and, upon his return, the plaintiff was content to become nonsuited. There was no doubt that the invention here was without any suspicion of its existence elsewhere; but the genius of each country, almost at the same moment, accomplished, independently, the same achievement."

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BRITISH ANIMALS.



THE DORMOUSE.

THE little dormouse has now awakened from his fitful sleep. When the winds of March sweep away the lingering fogs of winter,—when the tender buds are first seen on the trees, and the primrose first shows its head in the green banks—before the swallow comes to our shores, or the rook has finished her nest—the dormouse rouses up from the bed where he has slept for several months. His sleep, however, is not constant through the cold season, like that of some other animals; for he wakes, at times, to eat of the store of nuts and beech-mast which he has provided for his sustenance in the autumn. The marmot, a quadruped inhabiting some mountainous parts of Europe, makes no provision of this kind in his subterranean galleries. He sleeps completely.

M. Mangili, an Italian naturalist, made some curious experiments upon the dormouse and other animals which sleep during the cold weather. He kept the dormouse in a cupboard in his study. On the 24th December, when the thermometer was about 40°, that is 8° above the freezing point, the dormouse curled himself up amongst a heap of papers and went to sleep. On the 27th December, when the thermometer was several degrees lower, M. Mangili ascertained that the animal breathed, and suspended his respiration at regular intervals;—that is, that after four minutes of perfect repose, in which he appeared as if dead, he breathed about twenty-four times in the space of a minute and a half, and that then his breathing was again completely suspended, and again renewed. As the thermometer became higher, that is, as the weather became less cold, the intervals of repose were reduced to three minutes. On the contrary, when the thermometer fell nearly to the freezing point, the intervals were then six minutes. Within ten days from its beginning to sleep (the weather then being very cold), the dormouse woke and ate a little. He then went to sleep again; and continued to sleep for some days, and then to awaken, throughout the winter; but as the season advanced, the intervals of perfect repose, when no breathing could be perceived, were much longer, sometimes more than twenty minutes. The effects of confinement upon this individual animal caused him to sleep much longer than in a state of nature.

When a dormouse is discovered asleep, in his natural retreat, he is cold to the touch, his eyes are shut, and his respiration is slow and interrupted, as just described. Torpid animals, in general, when thus found, may be shaken, or rolled, or even struck, without a possibility of arousing them. But as the fine weather advances, the heat of their bodies increases, as it decreases at the approaches of winter; till at length they shake off their drowsiness, and are again the busy and happy inhabitants of the fields and gardens, active in the search of food to gratify their appetite, which is now as keen as it was dull in the cold months. These movements of course depend upon the states of the atmosphere, and are different in individuals of the same species.

THE SWALLOW.

The swallow, and other birds of passage—that is, birds who fly from one country to another, as the weather becomes unsuited to their natures—now begin to return to us. The swallow is a general favourite. He comes to us when nature is putting on her most smiling aspect, and he stays with us through the months of sunshine and gladness. "The swallow," says Sir H. Davy, "is one of my favourite birds, and a rival of the nightingale; for he glads my sense of seeing, as much as the other does my sense of hearing. He is the joyous prophet of the year, the harbinger of the best season; he lives a life of enjoyment amongst the loveliest forms of nature; winter is unknown to him, and he leaves the green meadows of England in autumn, for the myrtle and orange groves of Italy, and for the palms of Africa."

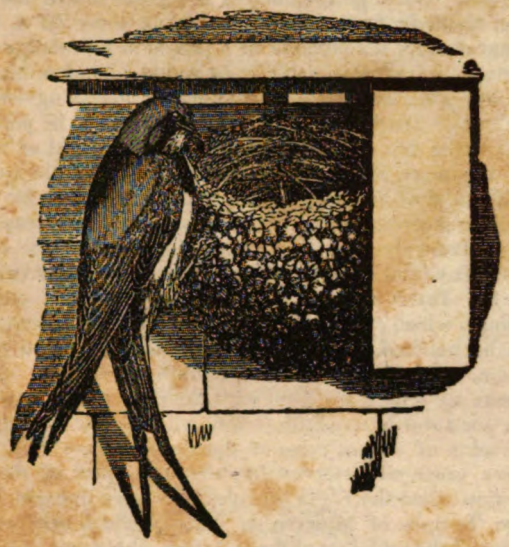
Mr. White, a clergyman of Hampshire, who delighted to observe all the works of the creation around him, has thus accurately described the window swallow's or martin's mode of building:—

"About the middle of May, if the weather be fine, the martin begins to think in earnest of providing a mansion for its family. The crust or shell of this nest seems to be formed of such dirt or loam as comes most readily to hand, and is tempered and wrought together with little bits of broken straws to render it tough and tenacious. As this bird often builds against a perpendicular wall without any projecting ledge under, it requires its utmost efforts to get the first foundation firmly fixed, so that it may safely carry the superstructure. On this occasion, the bird not only clings with its claws, but partly supports itself by strongly inclining its tail against the wall, making that a fulcrum; and thus steadied, it works and plasters the materials into the face of the brick or stone. But then, that this work may not, while it is soft and green, pull itself down by its own weight, the provident architect has prudence and forbearance enough not to advance her work too fast; but by building only in the morning, and by dedicating the rest of the day to food and amusement, gives it sufficient time to dry and harden. About half an inch seems to be a sufficient layer for a day. Thus careful workmen, when they build mud-walls (informed at first perhaps by this little bird), raise but a moderate layer at a time and then desist, lest the work should become top-heavy, and so be ruined by its own weight. By this method, in about ten or twelve days, is formed a hemispheric nest with a small aperture towards the top, strong, compact, and warm, and perfectly fitted for all the purposes for which it was intended.

"The shell or crust of the nest is a sort of rustic-work, full of knobs and protuberances on the outside: nor is the inside of those that I have examined smoothed with any exactness at all; but is rendered soft and warm, and fit for incubation, by a lining of small straws, grasses and feathers, and sometimes by a bedding of moss interwoven with wool. They are often capricious in fixing on a nesting-place, beginning many edifices and leaving them unfinished; but when once a nest is completed in a sheltered place, after so much labour is bestowed in erecting a mansion, as nature seldom works in vain, the same nest serves for several seasons. Those which breed in a ready finished house, get the start in hatching of those that build new by ten days or a fortnight. These industrious artificers are at their labours in the long days before four in the morning; when they

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fix their materials, they plaster them on with their chins, moving their heads with a quick, rotatory motion."



THE WEEK.

April 7.—The day of the birth, and also that of the death, of Raffaello Sanzio da Urbino, whom the universal voice of posterity has recognized as the Prince of modern Painters, and designated by the enthusiastic appellation of "the divine Raphael." No rival, a' .east, has ever been placed beside Raphael except Michael Angelo. Of the two illustrious contemporaries the former may perhaps be appropriately styled the Shakspeare, the latter the Milton of Painting. Dignity and imposing grandeur of design are the reigning characteristics of Michael Angelo; the highest dramatic power which has ever been displayed by the pencil, and the representation of passion with all the force of life, are the qualities that chiefly give their wonderful fascination to the works of Raphael. Raphael was born at Urbino in 1483. By the time he had reached the age of twenty-five he had so greatly distinguished himself that he was invited by Pope Julius II. to paint in fresco the chambers of the Vatican. From this time till his death, in 1520, at the early age of thirty-seven, he was employed in the execution of a succession of great works, chiefly for that pontiff and his successor, Leo X. His most famous performances are, his picture of the School of Athens in the Vatican, the Transfiguration, and his Cartoons on subjects taken from the Gospels and the Acts of the Apostles, which were brought to this country by Charles I., and are now to be seen at Hampton Court, upon the payment of a shilling for each party. Like Michael Angelo, Raphael was an architect as well as a painter, and, among other buildings, superintended the erection of part of the cathedral of St. Peter's. But his untimely death interrupted his prosecution of this and other great works on which he was engaged; leaving him, however, although with a glory gathered in comparative youth, with no living superior, and followed by no equal in succeeding times.

April 10.—This is the birth-day of the celebrated Dutch writer, Hugh de Groot, better known by his Latin name of Grotius, who was born at Delfft in 1583. Grotius was a prodigy of youthful talent and acquirement. When only fourteen he prepared an edition of a Latin author, Martianus Capella, in which he showed extensive classical and historical erudition. At the age of sixteen, having already made a journey to France, and been presented to Henry IV., who honoured him with the gift of his picture and a gold chain, he entered upon the profession of an advocate at Delfft. From this time he continued till his death to take an active part in political transactions; but still found leisure to write a vast number of books, most of them distinguished for their learning and ability. The book by which he is now principally known is his famous treatise on the law of nations, entitled, 'On the right of Peace and War.' It was first published at Paris in 1625. Another of his productions, which is still very popular, is his treatise 'On the Truth of the Christian Religion, written, like the former, in Latin, but which has been translated into every language of Europe. Grotius wrote a great part of this work while confined by a rival political faction in the castle of Louvestein, from which, however, after nearly two years' detention, his wife contrived to get him conveyed away in a chest, which she pretended was full of books. Grotius died in his sixty-third year, on the 28th of August, 1645.

April 11.—The birth-day of the late Right Honourable George Canning, who was born in London, in the year 1771. His father, an Irish gentleman of good family, died the same year in which his son was born. At the usual age young Canning was sent to Eton, where he soon distinguished himself by the brilliancy of his talents. While there he made the first public trial of his literary powers in 'The Microcosm,' a very clever periodical work, which he carried on in conjunction with some of his schoolfellows, and of which he was the projector and the editor. In 1787 he removed to Christ Church, Oxford, intending to adopt the profession of the law. But while yet at the University, his reputation for ability obtained for him the notice of Mr. Pitt, who brought him into Parliament in 1793. Mr. Canning's official career belongs to the history of his country, and especially that period of it during which he was Secretary of State for Foreign Affairs. The system of foreign policy with which his name is associated has caused his memory to be held in honour; and although he opposed Parliamentary Reform, as well as other popular measures, yet his steadfast support of Catholic Emancipation for a long series of years, and the protection he afforded to the cause of freedom on the Continent, and in South America, are proofs of his attachment to his celebrated toast of "*Civil and Religious Liberty all over the World!*" In April, 1827, he was appointed Prime Minister by George the Fourth, and continued to hold the offices of First Lord of the Treasury and Chancellor of the Exchequer till his death, on the 8th of August in the same year, at the Duke of Devonshire's villa at Chiswick, after a short illness. His death at so early a period after his accession to power called forth a deep feeling of grief in his own country, and, perhaps, a still stronger and more general feeling on the Continent, where medals were struck in memory of the British Minister.

THE BRITISH MUSEUM.

"The characteristic of the English populace,—perhaps we ought to say people, for it extends to the middle classes,—is their propensity to mischief. The people of most other countries may safely be admitted into parks, gardens, public buildings, and galleries of pictures and statues; but in England it is necessary to exclude them, as much as possible, from all such places."

This is a sentence from the last published number of the 'Quarterly Review.' Severe as it is, there is much truth in it. The fault is not entirely on the side of the people (we will not use the offensive term populace); but still they are in fault. The writer adds, speaking of this love of mischief, which he calls "a disgraceful part of the English character," that "anything tends to correct it that contributes to give the people a taste for intellectual pleasures,—anything that contributes to their innocent enjoyment,—anything that excites them to wholesome and pleasurable activity of

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body and mind.' This is quite true. We hope to do something, speaking generally, to excite and gratify a taste for intellectual pleasure; but we wish to do more in this particular case. We wish to point out many unexpensive pleasures, of the very highest order, which all those who reside in London have within their reach; and how the education of themselves and of their children may be advanced by using their opportunities of enjoying some of the purest gratifications which an instructed mind is capable of receiving. Having learnt to enjoy them, they will naturally feel an honest pride in the possession, by the Nation, of many of the most valuable treasures of Art and of Science; and they will hold that person a baby in mind—a spoiled, wilful, mischievous baby—who dares to attempt the slightest injury to the public property, which has been collected together, at an immense expense, for the public advantage.

Well, then, that we may waste no time in general discussion, let us begin with the British Museum. We will suppose ourselves addressing an artisan or tradesman, who can sometimes afford to take a holiday, and who knows there are better modes of spending a working-day, which he some half-dozen times a year devotes to pleasure, than amidst the smoke of a tap-room, or the din of a skittle-ground. He is a family man; he enjoys a pleasure doubly if it is shared by his wife and children. Well, then, in Great Russell-street, Bloomsbury, is the British Museum; and here, from ten o'clock till four, on Mondays, Wednesdays, and Fridays, he may see many of the choicest productions of ancient art—Egyptian, Grecian, and Roman monuments; and what will probably please the young people most, in the first instance, a splendid collection of natural history—quadrupeds, birds, insects, shells—all classed and beautifully disposed in an immense gallery, lately built by the Government for the more convenient exhibition of these curiosities. "But hold," says the working man, "I have passed by the British Museum: there are two sentinels at the gateway, and the large gates are always closed. Will they let me in? Is there nothing to pay?" That is a very natural question about the payment; for there is too much of paying in England by the people for admission to what they ought to see for nothing. But *here* there *is* nothing to pay. Knock boldly at the gate; the porter will open it. You are in a large square court-yard, with an old-fashioned house occupying three sides. A flight of steps leads up to the principal entrance. Go on. Do not fear any surly looks or impertinent glances from any person in attendance. You are upon safe ground here. You are come to see your own property. You have as much right to see it, and you are as welcome therefore to see it, as the highest in the land. There is no favour in showing it you. You assist in paying for the purchase, and the maintenance of it; and one of the very best effects that could result from that expense would be to teach every Englishman to set a proper value upon the enjoyments which such public property is capable of affording. Go boldly forward, then. The officers of the Museum, who are obliging to all strangers, will be glad to see you. Your garb is homely, you think, as you see gaily-dressed persons going in and out. No matter; you and your wife, and your children, are clean, if not smart. By the way, it will be well to mention that very young children (those under eight years old) are not admitted; and that for a very sufficient reason: in most cases they would disturb the other visitors.

You are now in the great Hall—a lofty room, with a fine staircase. In an adjoining room a book is presented to you, in which one of a party has to write his name and address, with the number of persons accompanying him. That is the only form you have to go through; and it is a necessary form, if it were only to preserve a record of the number of persons admitted. In each year this number amounts to about seventy thousand: so you see that the British Museum has afforded pleasure and improvement to a great many people. We hope the number of visitors will be doubled and trebled; for exhibitions such as these do a very great deal for the advance of a people in knowledge and virtue. What reasonable man would abandon himself to low gratifications—to drinking or gambling—when he may, whenever he pleases, and as often as he pleases at no cost but that of his time, enjoy the sight of some of the most curious and valuable things in the world, with as much ease as a prince walking about in his own private gallery. But that he may enjoy these treasures, and that every body else may enjoy them at the same time, it will be necessary to observe a few simple rules.

1st. *Touch nothing.* The statues, and other curious things, which are in the Museum, are to be seen, not to be handled. If visitors were to be allowed to touch them, to try whether they were hard or soft, to scratch them, to write upon them with their pencils, they would be soon worth very little. You will see some mutilated remains of two or three of the finest figures that ever were executed in the world: they form part of the collection called the Elgin Marbles, and were brought from the Temple of Minerva, at Athens, which city at the time of the sculpture of these statues, about two thousand three hundred years ago, was one of the cities of Greece most renowned for art and learning. Time has, of course, greatly worn these statues: but it is said that the Turkish soldiers, who kept the modern Greeks under subjection, used to take a brutal pleasure in the injury of these remains of ancient art; as if they were glad to destroy what their ignorance made them incapable of valuing. Is it not as great ignorance for a stupid fellow of our own day slily to write his own paltry name upon one of these glorious monuments? Is not such an act the most severe reproach upon the writer? Is it not, as if the scribbler should say, "Here am I, in the presence of some of the great masterpieces of art, whose antiquity ought to produce reverence, if I cannot comprehend their beauty; and I derive a pleasure from putting my own obscure, perishable name upon works whose fame will endure for ever." What a satire upon such vanity. Doubtless, these fellows, who are so pleased with their own weak selves, as to poke their names into every face, are nothing but grown babies, and want a fool's cap most exceedingly.

2dly. *Do not talk loud.* Talk, of course, you must; or you would lose much of the enjoyment we wish you to have—for pleasure is only half pleasure, unless it be shared with those we love. But do not disturb others with your talk. Do not call loudly from one end of a long gallery to the other, or you will distract the attention of those who derive great enjoyment from an undisturbed contemplation of the wonders in these rooms You will excuse this hint.

3rdly. *Be not obtrusive.* You will see many things in the Museum that you do not understand. It will be well to make a memorandum of these, to be inquired into at your leisure; and in these inquiries we shall endeavour to assist you from time to time. But do not trouble other visitors with your questions; and, above all, do not trouble the young artists, some of whom you will see making drawings for their improvement. Their time is precious to them; and it is a real inconvenience to be obliged to give their attention to anything but their work, or to have their attention disturbed by an over-curious person peeping at what they are doing. If you want to make any inquiry, go to one of the attendants, who walks about in each room. He will answer you as far as he knows. You must not expect to understand what you see all at once: you must go again and again if you wish to obtain real knowledge, beyond the gratification of passing curiosity.

In future numbers we shall briefly mention what is most worthy your attention in this National Collection.

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POESIE.

[George Wither, born 1588, died 1677.]

Though I miss the flowery fields,
With those sweets the spring-tide yields;
Though I may not see those groves,
Where the shepherds chaunt their loves,
And the lasses more excel,
Then the sweet-voiced Philomel;
Though of all those pleasures past,
Nothing now remains at last,
But remembrance (poor relief)
That more makes, then mends my grief;
She's my mind's companion still,
Maugre Envy's evil will.
She doth tell me where to borrow
Comfort in the midst of sorrow;
Makes the desolated place
To her presence be a grace;
And the blackest discontents
Be her fairest ornaments.
In my former days of bliss,
Her divine skill taught me this,
That from every thing I saw,
I could some invention draw;
And raise pleasure to her height,
Through the meanest object's sight.
By the murmur of a spring,
Or the least bough's rustling;
By a daisy whose leaves spread,
Shut when Titan goes to bed,
Or a shady bush or tree,
She could more infuse in me,
Then all nature's beauties can,
In some other wiser man.
By her help I also now
Make this churlish place allow
Some things that may sweeten gladness
In the very gall of sadness.
The dull loneness, the black shade,
That those hanging vaults have made,
The strange music of the waves
Beating on these hollow caves,
This black den which rocks emboss,
Overgrown with eldest moss,
The rude portals that give light,
More to terror than delight,—
This my chamber of neglect,
Walled about with disrespect,
From all these, and this dull air,
A fit object for despair,
She hath taught me by her might
To draw comfort and delight.
Therefore, thou best earthly bliss,
I will cherish thee for this.
Poesie, thou sweet'st content,
That e'er Heaven to mortals lent;
Though they as a trifle leave thee,
Whose dull thoughts cannot conceive thee;
Though thou be to them a scorn,
That to nought but earth are born;
Let my life no longer be,
Than I am in love with thee.

George Wither, the author of the above lines, was several times subjected to long and severe imprisonment for his political opinions. While in the Marshalsea prison in 1613, he wrote his 'Shepherd's Hunting,' a pastoral poem, from which this is an extract. The verses are not only beautiful in themselves, but they point out how a vigorous mind will secure happiness under the most unfavourable circumstances. The imagination of Wither was delighted to repose upon the most common natural objects;—and in the same way, the man who possesses the least of the outward gifts of fortune, if his faculties be awake to the beauties which nature has so plenteously scattered around his path, may possess in himself a source of pleasure of the purest kind. The rapture which Wither expresses for 'Poesie,' may to some appear overstrained; but let it not be thought that the poet attributed this power of imparting delight to his faculty alone of *making verses*. The exercise of his fancy, by which he could "raise pleasure to her height," consisted in presenting to his "mind's eye" the infinite beauties of the creation. The "daisy," whose remembrance gladdened even his prison-walls, brought to him images of the quiet and purity of the "flowery fields." Such images every body may enjoy, and may gradually learn to associate the commonest appearances of nature with a high moral feeling. We have many instances of this power of association in our finest poets; let us take as an example the following lines by a writer of our own day:—

TO A DAISY.

Bright flower, whose home is every where!
A pilgrim bold in Nature's care,
And oft, the long year through, the heir
Of joy or sorrow.

Methinks that there abides in thee
Some concord with humanity,
Given to no other flower I see
The forest thorough!

And wherefore? Man is soon deprest;
A thoughtless thing! who, once unblest,
Does little on his memory rest,
Or on his reason.

But thou would'st teach him how to find
A shelter under every wind;
A hope for times that are unkind,
And every season. Wordsworth.

ON THE CHOICE OF A LABOURING MAN'S DWELLING.

It seems, on the first view, somewhat odd to talk about choice of dwelling to a labouring man. It may occur to such a person, that as he has seldom more than two or three shillings per week to allow for rent, he must be contented with the humble accommodations that can be afforded for that sum. This is, to a certain extent, true; but it is not therefore to be concluded that the exercise of a little prudence may not put him in possession of some advantages with his two or three shillings, which the want of that quality would exclude him from. There are some dwellings so badly situated, in such ill repair, and altogether so miserable, that a man exposes himself and his family to disease and every other inconvenience by inhabiting them. Such hovels are usually tenanted by people who are behind-hand in paying their rent, and so cannot leave them; or who, being "steeped to the very lips in poverty," are indifferent to cleanliness and all other comforts. It is possible that an industrious and careful family may, for some time, be obliged to live in a wretched house; but it is their own fault if they continue in it. In this country the poor are better lodged than in any other in Europe; and within the last twenty years the increase of population and of productive labour has caused a demand for cottages, which has covered every parish, and particularly the neighbourhood of large towns, with an amazing number of snug little houses, in which provision is generally made for the comfort of those who inhabit them. Now while there is such a *choice* of dwellings, it is very much a labouring man's fault if he does not have a commodious one; and if he continue to be the tenant of a damp, or ruinous, or badly ventilated hut, while the snug brick and tiled tenement remains vacant, we should say that he is a blind and stupid observer of an old proverb (which, however, has much sense in it) that "three removes are as bad as a fire."

We wish to offer a few plain hints to assist our readers in the choice of a dwelling. And, first, of situation.

Whoever rambles through our villages must often see a pretty little cottage, that realizes all that benevolence could wish for a labouring man's dwelling. We have seen many such; and the remembrance often occurs to us, when we observe rich men unhappy, in large mansions, and amongst splendid furniture. We then think of the contrast which the simplicity and content of the "peasant's nest" offers. Who has not looked upon the whitened walls, half covered with roses and jessamine, and the neat garden, where ornament is blended with utility,

And said, if there's peace to be found in the world,
A heart that is humble may hope for it here!

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But an agreeable dwelling is not always to be commanded; nor is the *best* situation always to be found. If a cottager have a house with a northern aspect, he must pay a little more attention to his gooseberry and apple trees, to make them bear as plentifully as those which are trained in a southern sun. We are only desirous to caution him against a house that is truly uncomfortable, and that cannot be easily rendered otherwise.

We would first say, avoid, if it be possible, a low and marshy situation. There are many dangerous fevers which are produced by the vicinity of stagnant waters: and houses which from their site are constantly damp expose those who inhabit them to rheumatism, croup, ague, and other painful disorders. The same effects are produced by dwelling-houses which are subject to occasional inundations of rivers. To be driven in cold weather from the accustomed fire-side to shiver in bedrooms which have probably no grate; to have two or three feet of water running through the lower part of the house, destroying many things and injuring more; and at last, when the inundations cease, to find the whole dwelling damp and miserable for several weeks: this is a visitation which no one would willingly seek. If a cottager has therefore the choice of being on a hill-side, or by the bank of a river, we think, if he were a sensible man, he would prefer the elevated situation.

On the *construction* of a dwelling, we have not much to observe. The great requisite is the free admission of *light* and *air*. *Dark* rooms are an inconvenience to the industrious housewife which we need not describe; and rooms not properly *ventilated* are more injurious to health than may readily be conceived. Every sleeping-room should have a chimney. In England, no sitting-room is, we apprehend, without one. But in Ireland, the peasantry have neither window nor chimney to their wretched hovels. The smoke of the turf which burns upon their hearth forces its way out by the door; and the family sit and sleep in this dark and dirty condition. This would be intolerable amongst the more cleanly and richer peasantry of this country.

Of the appendages to a house, a good supply of water is one of the most necessary conveniences. If the pitcher is to be carried a dozen times a day to a spring or a well a quarter of a mile off, it is almost the labour of one person to procure this supply; and that labour would contribute as much to the family earnings as, in twelve months, would dig a well. No cottager should be without a garden. A rood of land, properly cultivated, will half maintain a careful family.

Of the *fixtures* of a house we cannot be expected to say much. A *copper* and an *oven* will enable the female to labour most profitably for the general good. A cottager that can grow his own potatoes, keep his pig, brew his beer, and bake his bread, has not many necessaries to purchase of the shopkeeper, and is therefore, to a certain extent, independent in the best sense of the word.

As to furniture, we would say, avoid *furnished lodgings*. The bed and table, and two or three chairs, of these places, seldom cost more than 5*l*., the interest of which is only 5*s*. a year. The money annually paid for the use of such things is almost as much as their prime cost. There is a satisfaction, too, in knowing that what is about us is our own. It is better to sit upon an old box or a block of wood than to pay enormously for the hire of a chair; and we may sleep as soundly upon a straw mattress as upon an expensive feather-bed. One secret, to be happy in every situation of life, is this,—not to sacrifice real comfort and solid independence to make a show. When the cottager has got ten pounds in the Savings Bank, he may afford his wife a mahogany tea-table. An American writer has given some judicious remarks upon this subject, which apply to all classes:—

"If you are about to furnish a house, do not spend all your money, be it much or little. Do not let the beauty of this thing, and the cheapness of that, tempt you to buy unnecessary articles. Doctor Franklin's maxim was a wise one, 'Nothing is cheap that we do not want.' Buy merely enough to get along with at first. It is only by experience that you can tell what will be the wants of your family. If you spend all your money, you will find you have purchased many things you do not want, and have no means left to get many things which you do want. If you have enough, and more than enough, to get every thing suitable to your situation, do not think you must spend it all, merely because you happen to have it. Begin humbly. As riches increase, it is easy and pleasant to increase in comforts; but it is always painful and inconvenient to decrease. After all, these things are viewed in their proper light by the truly judicious and respectable. Neatness, tastefulness, and good sense may be shown in the management of a small household, and the arrangement of a little furniture, as well as upon a larger scale; and these qualities are always praised, and always treated with respect and attention. The consideration which many purchase by living beyond their income, and of course living upon others, is not worth the trouble it costs. The glare there is about this false and wicked parade is deceptive; it does not in fact procure a man valuable friends, or extensive influence."

However small may be a man's income, there is one very certain way of increasing it—that is *Frugality*. A frugal expenditure will enable almost every body to *save* something; and as there are now established throughout this country *Banks*, where the industrious may safely deposit their savings, however little they may be, and receive the same sort of advantage which the rich derive from their money that is, *interest*, there is every inducement to make *an effor to save*. Dr. Franklin observes, in his usual forcible way that "six pounds a-year is but a groat a-day. For this little sum which may be daily wasted, either in time or expense, unperceived, a man of credit may, on his own security, have the constant possession and use of a hundred and twenty pounds." Many humble men in England have risen to wealth by such small beginnings; but many more continue to expend the groat a-day unnecessarily, and never cease to be poor.

A certain pope, who had been raised from an obscure situation to the apostolic chair, was immediately waited upon by a deputation sent from a small district, in which he had formerly officiated as *cure:* it seems that he had promised the inhabitants that he would do something for them, if it should ever be in his power; and some of [illegible] before him, to remind him of his promi[illegible] you must; that he would fulfil it, by granting [illegible] *every year!* He acceded to their *modest* request, on condition that they should go home immediately, and so adjust the Almanac of their own particular district, as to make every year of *their* Register consist of twenty-four calenda months.

Sir George Staunton visited a man in India who had committed a murder, and, in order not only to save his life, but what was of much more consequence, his *caste*, he submitted to the penalty imposed; this was, that he should sleep for seven years on a bedstead, without any mattress, the whole surface of which was studded with points of iron, resembling nails, but not so sharp as to penetrate the flesh. Sir George saw him in the fifth year of his probation, and his skin was then like the hide of a rhinoceros, but more callous; at that time, however, he could sleep comfortably on his "*bed of thorns*," and remarked, that at the expiration of the term of his sentence, he should most probably continue that system from choice, which he had been obliged to adopt from necessity.

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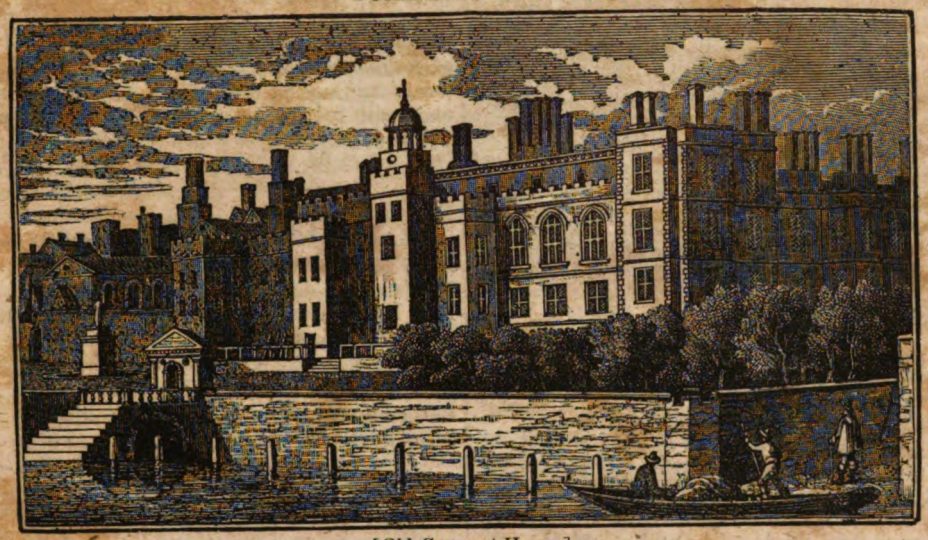
THE PENNY MAGAZINE

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SOMERSET-HOUSE.



[Old Somerset-House.]

THE history of Somerset-house is, in a great degree, a history of the variable characteristics of successive ages. The present building is of modern date. But upon the same site stood the old Somerset-house, erected in the year 1549, by the Protector Somerset. This was the age of arbitrary violence and lawless power. Somerset-house originally rose upon the ruins of ecclesiastical edifices and of private dwellings. The proud man who degraded and abused his authority, by making it the minister to his personal gratification, pulled down an ancient church, an inn of court, and a number of houses, to make room for the magnificent palace which he here erected. Not the slightest compensation was made to the owners. But Somerset did not long enjoy the poor gratification of his splendid abode. He died on the scaffold in the year 1552.

In succeeding times Somerset-house became the residence of various queens. The great Elizabeth sometimes resided here. Anne of Denmark, Queen to James I., here kept her court, which was remarkable for its grotesque amusements, being, as an old author says, "a continued masquerade." The unfortunate Queen of Charles I. resided here after her husband's execution; and here the Roman Catholic Queen of Charles II. kept a separate court. Those were the ages in which royalty displayed itself in cumbrous pomp; and in which religious contentions of the most intolerant character interrupted the quiet of the people, and degraded the faith which, as it was professed, they were meant to uphold.

At length arrived the age of regulated freedom,—of national wealth produced by unfettered industry,—of science applied to the manufacturing arts,—of diffused comforts and enjoyments. In the reign of George III. a building of sufficient magnitude for the business of several of the most important departments of public affairs was required, and old Somerset-house presented an eligible site. The present extensive pile was commenced in 1774, from the design of Sir William Chambers.

The principal departments of Government which are here carried on, are the Stamp-Office, the Victualling-Office, the Audit-Office, and the Navy-Office. The front of Somerset-house to the Strand contains th apartments belonging to the Royal Society, the Society of Antiquaries, the Geological Society, and the Roya. Academy of Arts.

EMIGRATION TO THE NORTH AMERICAN COLONIES.

THE Commissioners appointed by his Majesty's Government to superintend and facilitate emigration to the Colonies have just published a little tract*, the extensive circulation of which, we think, will be productive of much benefit. The reliance which may be safely placed on an official document gives this publication a superior value. It should be in the hands of every one who is interested (either on his own account, or on that of others) in possessing accurate information respecting the facilities which are afforded to persons who wish to emigrate to the Canadas, or to New Brunswick. The great difficulty which formerly beset the emigrant, was his helpless condition on his arrival in a strange country. For want of knowledge of the country—for want of an acquaintance with persons who possessed that knowledge—and too frequently from acquaintance with persons who possessed that knowledge, but who turned it to their own account and to his disadvantage, the emigrant, to use a common phrase, not knowing which way to turn himself, frequently turned wrong, and the bad consequences of a mistake, at so critical a moment, can seldom be retrieved. The offer of a grant of land rather increased his difficulty; for when a poor man had got this bit of land, he soon found that he had not the means of living during the interval necessary to raise a crop, and that if he had the means of doing so, he did not know how to apply his labour and his money to the best advantage. So that he was, after all, forced to work for wages, until he could get together a few savings, and could learn a little of the way of living and farming in Canada. Now, in Canada, there is plenty

* Information published by his Majesty's Commissioners for Emigration, respecting the British Colonies in North America.—London: published by Charles Knight, Pall-Mall East; and to be had of all Booksellers and Newsvenders. Price Two Pence, or 1s. 9d. per dozen for distribution.

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of work and very high wages; so that an industrious man has not long to wait for good employment under any circumstances. But it is very vexatious to have spent time and money, and perhaps health, and to find oneself obliged to begin all over again. The Commissioners, therefore, recommend the emigrant, who has little to depend upon but his own manual labour, to begin by working for wages. *Land* is no longer given for nothing, but it is to be had so cheap, and labour is so well paid, that if a man is thrifty as well as industrious, he ought to be able to become a purchaser by the time he has learned enough of the way of the country to be a successful cultivator.

It is clear, therefore, that the best thing that Government can do is to secure immediate employment for the emigrant labourer. And, for this purpose, Agents are maintained at the principal colonial ports, whose duty it is to protect emigrants against imposition on their first landing, to acquaint them with the demand for labour in different districts, to point out the best roads and conveyances, and to give them such advice as may set them in a fair way of doing well. For this valuable assistance no fee or reward will be accepted by the agents. When a private engagement cannot be had without loss of time, employment will be afforded on some of the public works which are going on. No emigrant should lose a minute after his arrival in going straightway to the *Government Agents for Emigrants*, where he will find what he most wants—advice and employment.

The *best* months for leaving England are March and April.

The price of passage from the different ports is stated to be as under:—

	For a grown Person.	For a Child under Fourteen.	Under Seven.
From London & the Eastern Ports . . .	6*l.*	3*l.*	2*l.*
From Liverpool, Greenock, and the Ports of Ireland . .	4*l.* to 5*l.*	2*l.* to 2*l.* 10*s.*	1*l.* 6*s.* 8*d.* to 1*l.* 13*s.* 4*d.*

For children under twelve months no charge is made. At the above charges the emigrant is supplied with provisions during the voyage, and this is, perhaps, the best mode of making the bargain, as the emigrant is protected by law against the supply of provisions being insufficient, and dangerous mistakes are frequently made by persons who are not in the habit of laying in stores, and who are not able to foresee what they shall want on board a ship. Besides the probability of their being much better provided for by the shipowner than by themselves, it is pretty certain that they will save money by it. The price of a passage, exclusive of provisions, that is, where nothing is found by the shipowner but water, fuel, and bed-places, is one-half of the above rates. To avoid being detained at the port by the vessel not sailing on the appointed day, a particular day ought always to be *named in the bargain;* after which, whether the ship sails or not, the passenger is to be received on board and victualled by the owners. If that is done, the emigrant has a right to be received on board on that day so named, and to consider the ship as his home until she does sail. This prevents his being brought to the place of embarkation too soon, and kept waiting at a tavern, where he may spend the little money he has, or contract debts which will prevent his leaving the country.

Emigrants should bear in mind that the sea-voyage will not bring them at once to the place of their destination, but that at least £2 should be reserved for each grown person for the inland journey. Including the journey from his home to the port where he gets on board, the expense to a grown person of removing to Canada appears, from this document, to be from £7 to £9.

Arrangements have been made by which persons, who may wish to furnish emigrants with money for their use in the colony, may have the means of making the money payable there, instead of giving it into the hands of the emigrant before he leaves this country.

The number of emigrants is considerable already, and the Commissioners have done wisely in directing their attention, in the first instance, to providing for the emigrant on his arriving in Canada; but in the work of facilitating his departure from this country, much remains for them to do. They have begun at the right end, and begun well; but the Commissioners will not fulfil the expectation which the public have formed from their appointment, unless, in due time, they apply themselves to remove the difficulties which attend the first steps of the emigrant. We say, in due time, because we do not wish to see encouragement to emigrate held out to the labouring poor, until preparation is fully made for their well-doing elsewhere, and until the legislature give their sanction to such improvements in our system of poor laws, as shall render the departure of the emigrant a real and permanent benefit to his country as well as to himself. In a future number we shall return to this interesting and important subject.

THE SEASONS OF THE ANTIPODES.

The inhabitants of a place occupying a position on the surface of the globe directly opposite to our own country are called our Antipodes, a name derived from two Greek words meaning *opposite* and *foot*. If Hobart Town, the capital of Van Diemen's Land, were about fourteen hundred miles farther east, and about five hundred miles farther south, the inhabitants of that place and the inhabitants of London would stand with their feet planted exactly against each other. As it is, the difference in longitude occasions a difference between the time of the day with them and with us of nearly ten hours—or, when it is noon, for example, with us, it is about ten o'clock at night with them. The more remarkable difference, however, between their situation and ours is that arising from the circumstance that we lie on the one side of the equator, and they nearly at as great a distance on the other. The consequence is, that when it is winter in England, it is summer in Van Diemen's Land; when winter there, summer here; and that all the appearances of the year, in short, are completely reversed in the two countries. Thus the spring quarter of the Van Diemen's Land year begins in September, on the first day of which month, as is seen by the Calendar in the Van Diemen's Land Almanack, the sun rises and sets at the same hours as it does with us on the 4th of March; and the day is lengthening, as in our spring. It continues to do so till the 21st of December (our shortest day), when it is at the longest; and then it gradually diminishes in length through the summer and autumnal months of January, February, March, April, and May, till on the 21st of June (our longest day) it reaches the utmost limit of its contraction. The latitude of Hobart Town, however, being not quite so high as ours, the longest day there is not so long, nor the shortest day so short, as with us. The length of their 21st of December is about 15 hours 12 minutes, that of our 21st of June being 16 hours 34 minutes; and that of their 21st of June is 8 hours 48 minutes, that of our 21st of December being only 7 hours 44 minutes. Our earliest sunrise is at 43 minutes past 3, theirs at 24 minutes past 4; our latest sunset is at 17 minutes past 8, theirs at 36 minutes past 7. At no period of the year, therefore, do their days either increase or decrease so fast as ours. In reviewing the different seasons with reference to this particular of the continuance of the sun above the horizon, it may be stated generally that September, October, and Novem

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ber in Van Diemen's Land answer very nearly to March and April in England; December, January, and February there, to May, June, July, August, and about the first third of September with us; March, April, and May there, to the remainder of September, October, and the first third of November with us; and June, July, and August there, to the remainder of November, December, January, and February here. There are other circumstances, however, besides the mere length of the days, which affect the progress of the seasons; and therefore the succession of the natural appearances of the year in the two countries will not be found to follow exactly the commencement and close of these corresponding periods.

DISAPPOINTMENTS OF THE AUTHORS OF IMPORTANT INVENTIONS.

Almost every one who has rendered a great service to mankind, by striking out inventions, whose objects are misconceived or imperfectly understood by the world, has had to complain of the neglect or coldness of his own generation. Even his best friends are apt to suspect his motives and undervalue his labours. The real recompense, in such circumstances, as in all others, is the consciousness of doing one's duty. Fulton, the inventor of the steam-boat in North America, which, in a few years, has produced such an astonishing change in that vast country, by connecting together its most distant states, sustained the mortification of not being comprehended by his countrymen. He was, therefore, treated as an idle projector, whose schemes would be useless to the world and ruinous to himself. At a discourse, delivered at the Mechanics' Institute, Boston, in 1829, by Judge Story, the feelings of Fulton, upon his first public experiment, are thus related:—

"I myself have heard the illustrious inventor of the steam-boat relate, in an animated and affecting manner, the history of his labours and discouragements. When, said he, I was building my first steam-boat at New York, the project was viewed by the public, either with indifference or with contempt, as a visionary scheme. My friends, indeed, were civil, but they were shy. They listened with patience to my explanations, but with a settled cast of incredulity on their countenances. I felt the full force of the lamentation of the poet,

'Truths would you teach, to save a sinking land,
All shun, none aid you, and few understand.'

As I had occasion to pass daily to and from the building-yard, while my boat was in progress, I have often loitered unknown near the idle groups of strangers, gathering in little circles, and heard various inquiries as to the object of this new vehicle. The language was uniformly that of scorn, or sneer, or ridicule. The loud laugh often rose at my expense; the dry jest; the wise calculation of losses and expenditures; the dull but endless repetition of the Fulton Folly. Never did a single encouraging remark, a bright hope, or a warm wish, cross my path. Silence itself was but politeness, veiling its doubts, or hiding its reproaches. At length the day arrived when the experiment was to be put into operation. To me it was a most trying and interesting occasion. I invited many friends to go on board to witness the first successful trip. Many of them did me the favour to attend, as a matter of personal respect; but it was manifest that they did it with reluctance, fearing to be the partners of my mortification, and not of my triumph. I was well aware, that, in my case, there were many reasons to doubt of my own success. The machinery was new and ill-made; many parts of it were constructed by mechanics unaccustomed to such work; and unexpected difficulties might reasonably be presumed to present themselves from other causes. The moment arrived in which the word was to be given for the vessel to move. My friends were in groups on the deck. There was anxiety mixed with fear among them. They were silent, and sad, and weary. I read in their looks nothing but disaster, and almost repented of my efforts. The signal was given, and the boat moved on a short distance, and then stopped, and became immoveable. To the silence of the preceding moment now succeeded murmurs of discontent, and agitations, and whispers, and shrugs. I could hear distinctly repeated, 'I told you it would be so, it is a foolish scheme; I wish we were well out of it.' I elevated myself upon a platform, and addressed the assembly. I stated that I knew not what was the matter; but if they would be quiet, and indulge me for half an hour, I would either go on, or abandon the voyage for that time. This short respite was conceded without objection. I went below, examined the machinery, and discovered that the cause was a slight mal-adjustment of some of the work. In a short period it was obviated. The boat was again put in motion. She continued to move on. All were still incredulous. None seemed willing to trust the evidence of their own senses. We left the fair city of New York; we passed through the romantic and ever-varying scenery of the highlands; we descried the clustering houses of Albany; we reached its shores; and then, even then, when all seemed achieved, I was the victim of disappointment. Imagination superseded the influence of fact. It was then doubted if it could be done again; or, if done, it was doubted if it could be made of any great value."

THUS I THINK.

[From Locke's Miscellaneous Papers, published in his Life by Lord King.]

It is a man's proper business to seek happiness and avoid misery. Happiness consists in what delights and contents the mind; misery in what disturbs, discomposes, or torments it.

I will therefore make it my business to seek satisfaction and delight, and avoid uneasiness and disquiet; to have as much of the one and as little of the other as may be.

But here I must have a care I mistake not; for if I prefer a *short* pleasure to a *lasting* one, it is plain I cross my own happiness.

Let me then see wherein consists the most lasting pleasure of this life, and that, as far as I can observe, is in these things:—

1st. Health,—without which no sensual* pleasure can have any relish.

2nd. Reputation,—for *that* I find every body is pleased with, and the want of it is a constant torment.

3rd. Knowledge,—for the little knowledge I have, I find I would not sell at any rate, nor part with for any other pleasure.

4th. Doing good,—for I find the well-cooked meat I eat to-day does now no more delight me, nay, I am diseased after a full meal;—the perfumes I smelt yesterday now no more affect me with any pleasure; but the *good turn* I did yesterday, a year, seven years since, continues *still* to please and delight me as often as I reflect on it.

5th. The expectation of eternal and incomprehensible happiness in another world is that also which carries a constant pleasure with it.

If, then, I will faithfully pursue that happiness I propose to myself, whatever pleasure offers itself to me, I must carefully look that it cross not any of those five great and constant pleasures above mentioned. For example, the fruit I see tempts me with the taste of it that I love; but if it endanger my health, I part with a constant and lasting for a very short and transient pleasure, and so foolishly make myself unhappy, and am not true to my own interest.

Innocent diversions delight me: if I make use of them to refresh myself after study and business, they preserve my health, restore the vigour of my mind, and increase my pleasure; but if I spend all, or the greater part of my time in them, they hinder my improvement in knowledge and useful arts, they blast my credit, and give me up to the uneasy state of shame, ignorance, and contempt, in which I cannot but be very unhappy. Drinking, gaming, and vicious delights will do me this mischief, not only by wasting my time, but by a positive injury endanger my health, impair my parts, imprint ill habits, lessen my esteem, and leave a constant lasting torment on my conscience; therefore all vicious and unlawful pleasures I will always avoid, because such a mastery of my passions will afford me a constant pleasure greater than any such enjoyments, and also deliver me from the certain evil of several kinds, that by indulging myself in a present temptation I shall certainly afterwards suffer.

* As opposed to intellectual.

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All innocent diversions and delights, as far as they will contribute to my health, and consist with my improvement, condition, and my other more solid pleasures of knowledge and reputation, I will enjoy, but no farther; and this I will carefully watch and examine, that I may not be deceived by the flattery of a present pleasure to lose a greater.

A regulated habit of looking beyond our immediate situations is justly considered the parent of all laudable enterprises. But the habit *must* be regulated, and strictly regulated, or it will become the source of miseries and crime. The secret for its regulation may be shortly expressed. He who pursues a future happiness, prosperity, or honour, by the right path, does not cast away the good in his possession, nor neglect the duties which lie before him; but he endeavours to shape them by slow degrees to that model of perfection which his feelings or his reason have set up. On the other hand, he who views some distant object of desire, without connecting it with his immediate obligations, neither attains the blessings within his reach, nor approaches a single step to the ideal good; he has cast away the link which connects the present with the future.

Advantages of the Diffusion of Knowledge.—An intelligent class can scarce ever be, as a class, vicious; never, as a class, indolent. The excited mental activity operates as a counterpoise to the stimulus of sense and appetite. The new world of ideas; the new views of the relations of things; the astonishing secrets of the physical properties and mechanical powers, disclosed to the well-informed mind, present attractions, which, unless the character is deeply sunk, are sufficient to counterbalance the taste for frivolous or corrupt pleasures; and thus, in the end, a standard of character is created in the community, which, though it does not invariably save each individual, protects the virtue of the mass.—*Everett's Essay.*

BRITISH ANIMALS.



THE MOLE.

The *Moles* are beginning to throw up the earth, and to destroy the herbage of the light soils. What an extraordinary animal is the mole! We constantly see his traces of destructiveness, but how difficult is it to track him to his hiding-place. And no wonder: his excavations are galleries of many feet in length, worked out by his snout and strong fore-paws, with all the skill and expedition of a human miner; and when he is alarmed he retreats to his citadel, and defies all enemies. The mole, as is well known to our country readers, is destroyed by a trap of peculiar construction, which is discharged by the little animal passing through it. The mole-catcher—in general a quiet old man, who passes the winter in making his traps in his chimney corner—comes forth at this season with his implements of destruction. His practised eye soon discovers the track of the mole, from the mound which he throws up to some neighbouring bank, or from one mound to another. It is in this track or run that he sets his trap, a few inches below the surface of the ground. As the mole passes through this little engine of his ruin he disturbs a peg which holds down a strong hazel rod in a bent position. The moment the peg is moved the end of the rod which is held down flies up, and with it comes up the poor mole, dragged out of the earth which he has so ingeniously excavated, to be gibbetted without a chance of escape. The trap is very simple and effectual; but, somehow, the moles flourish in spite of their human enemies. Mole-catchers, a plodding, unscientific race, know little of their trade, which requires the most accurate study of the habits of the animal. There was a Frenchman of the name of Le Court, (he died about two years ago,) a man of great knowledge and perseverance, who did not think it beneath him to devote his whole attention to the observation of the mole. He established a school for mole-catching; and taught many, what he had acquired by incessant perseverance, the art of tracing the mole to his hiding-place in the ground, and cutting off his retreat. The skill of this man once saved a large and fertile district of France from inundation by a canal, whose banks the moles had undermined in every direction. Le Court alone saw the mischief, and could stop it. Doubts have been entertained whether moles are really so mischievous to the farmer as they are generally supposed to be. It has been said that they assist the draining of land by forming their excavations, and that they thus prevent the foot-rot in sheep.

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is the day on which the Saviour commanded his disciples "to love one another." The acts of love and humility which he performed on that day used to be imitated by great monarchs of Europe, in washing the feet of the poor. A better imitation would have been to have abstained from those many deeds of tyranny which disfigure the ancient annals of every kingdom. At the present day, in England, the King's almoner at Whitehall distributes silver pence to old and indigent persons on this celebration.

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THE LIBRARY.

"——— My Library
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The cheapest of all enjoyments by far is that which is derived from books. We hold a library, therefore, to be among the fittest furniture of even the poorest man's cottage. A most important and cheering consideration in reference to this sort of furniture is, that the more the demand for books shall grow and extend itself the cheaper are they sure to be sold. The price even of many new books, owing to the large sale upon which the publisher can now count by the increase of readers, is now so low, that for a few pounds, expended in the course of as many years, at the easy rate of a shilling or two at a time, almost as many volumes may be purchased, full of the most instructive and interesting information, as a labouring man and his family have, in general, leisure to read and study.

Let but the small sum of one pound annually be expended in this way by a working man; and what a respectable stock of books might be collected in twenty years, gradually increasing as his family grew up If the purchases were judiciously made, probably between one and two hundred of the most useful volumes in the language might be secured for this money. Many of them, indeed, would be second-hand copies; but, if they were in good condition, they would be no worse for that. Then, once purchased, this library would remain a valuable property for ever. Books, however much used, if they be only used properly, should never wear out. There are many volumes in the great public libraries of this and other countries, which have been in use for centuries, and yet are in as good condition as when they came from the press. It is only careless readers that destroy or injure books in using them.

In many situations a much more ample command of books may be obtained by the poorer classes for even much less than this cost, by a number of them joining together to maintain a common library. This is an advantage which books have over other articles of furniture. The same library might serve many families at the same time nearly as well as it could serve any one of them exclusively. The quantity of chairs and tables and other household goods which is required for the use of one family cannot accommodate more than one, these articles are in constant requisition; their possessor cannot admit his neighbours to share them with him. But the collection of books which we have supposed to be formed in the course of twenty years, at a cost of as many pounds, might be made to dispense its benefits among twenty families, without an individual belonging to any one of them being deprived of any part of the advantage which he would have enjoyed if he had been the only person by whom the books could be read. When so many families, then, can be found in the same place, disposed to join their contributions for this purpose, the complete command of such a collection by all of them is obtained at a very small cost to each. Instead of a pound a year, it is only a shilling; or, if they choose to pay annually a pound each, they have each of them access to twenty times more books in consequence of their union than they could have obtained the use of separately by the same expenditure. They will probably find it best to mix these two advantages—to subscribe, say a fourth part of a pound, or five shillings, which will still procure them five times as much reading as the expenditure of the whole pound by each of them separately would have procured.

Such are the advantages of union, here as in every thing else. But a farther improvement on popular libraries has been lately recommended and put in practice in some parts of the country, and chiefly in Scotland, by the exertions of Mr. Brown, of Haddington. If a poor man were every year, or every quarter, to exchange his tables and chairs and bedsteads for others of about the same value, he would make nothing of the operation except a great deal of trouble and waste of time. The articles which he received would not answer his purpose better than those which he parted with: he would not derive any more accommodation from the strange furniture than he might have done from that to which he had been used. But here again books have an advantage peculiar to themselves. When you have read through one collection, another collection, consisting of different works, although intrinsically of no greater value, has yet a much greater value to you; the information which the new books communicate forms a positive addition to whatever knowledge your mind has already stored up. Hence the idea of itinerating, or travelling, libraries. Let us suppose that half-a-dozen contiguous villages in a particular district have each its small library, provided, in the manner already pointed out, by the united subscriptions of the inhabitants; if an arrangement be made that these six libraries shall consist of different works, and that the several collections, instead of remaining stationary, shall move about from one village to another the body of readers in each village will obtain the use of six libraries at the cost of one. This principle may be applied, of course, either to enlarge the command of reading or to diminish the cost, or to produce partly the one effect and partly the other. It would probably be found the best plan to have a portion of each collection stationary; there being certain books, of general usefulness, or in great request, which it would be desirable to have everywhere always at hand.

But there is one great difficulty which both individuals and associations frequently feel in purchasing books. They are at a loss to know what books it is best for them to procure: or, if they are anxious to procure a particular work, they do not know which is the edition that is likely, from its price or other recommendations, best to suit them. We propose in a series of short notices under our present title to lay before our readers, from time to time, such information as may assist them in the task of selection, in reference both to old and to new books. Without professing to go over the different departments of literature in any regular order, but rather seeking to give variety to our pages, and at the same time to meet the views of different readers, by passing from one subject to another, we shall from time to time give accounts

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Was Dukedom large enough."—*Prospero, in the Tempest.*

The cheapest of all enjoyments by far is that which is derived from books. We hold a library, therefore, to be among the fittest furniture of even the poorest man's cottage. A most important and cheering consideration in reference to this sort of furniture is, that the more the demand for books shall grow and extend itself the cheaper are they sure to be sold. The price even of many new books, owing to the large sale upon which the publisher can now count by the increase of readers, is now so low, that for a few pounds, expended in the course of as many years, at the easy rate of a shilling or two at a time, almost as many volumes may be purchased, full of the most instructive and interesting information, as a labouring man and his family have, in general, leisure to read and study.

Let but the small sum of one pound annually be expended in this way by a working man; and what a respectable stock of books might be collected in twenty years, gradually increasing as his family grew up If the purchases were judiciously made, probably between one and two hundred of the most useful volumes in the language might be secured for this money. Many of them, indeed, would be second-hand copies; but, if they were in good condition, they would be no worse for that. Then, once purchased, this library would remain a valuable property for ever. Books, however much used, if they be only used properly, should never wear out. There are many volumes in the great public libraries of this and other countries, which have been in use for centuries, and yet are in as good condition as when they came from the press. It is only careless readers that destroy or injure books in using them.

In many situations a much more ample command of books may be obtained by the poorer classes for even much less than this cost, by a number of them joining together to maintain a common library. This is an advantage which books have over other articles of furniture. The same library might serve many families at the same time nearly as well as it could serve any one of them exclusively. The quantity of chairs and tables and other household goods which is required for the use of one family cannot accommodate more than one, these articles are in constant requisition; their possessor cannot admit his neighbours to share them with him. But the collection of books which we have supposed to be formed in the course of twenty years, at a cost of as many pounds, might be made to dispense its benefits among twenty families, without an individual belonging to any one of them being deprived of any part of the advantage which he would have enjoyed if he had been the only person by whom the books could be read. When so many families, then, can be found in the same place, disposed to join their contributions for this purpose, the complete command of such a collection by all of them is obtained at a very small cost to each. Instead of a pound a year, it is only a shilling; or, if they choose to pay annually a pound each, they have each of them access to twenty times more books in consequence of their union than they could have obtained the use of separately by the same expenditure. They will probably find it best to mix these two advantages—to subscribe, say a fourth part of a pound, or five shillings, which will still procure them five times as much reading as the expenditure of the whole pound by each of them separately would have procured.

Such are the advantages of union, here as in every thing else. But a farther improvement on popular libraries has been lately recommended and put in practice in some parts of the country, and chiefly in Scotland, by the exertions of Mr. Brown, of Haddington. If a poor man were every year, or every quarter, to exchange his tables and chairs and bedsteads for others of about the same value, he would make nothing of the operation except a great deal of trouble and waste of time. The articles which he received would not answer his purpose better than those which he parted with: he would not derive any more accommodation from the strange furniture than he might have done from that to which he had been used. But here again books have an advantage peculiar to themselves. When you have read through one collection, another collection, consisting of different works, although intrinsically of no greater value, has yet a much greater value to you; the information which the new books communicate forms a positive addition to whatever knowledge your mind has already stored up. Hence the idea of itinerating, or travelling, libraries. Let us suppose that half-a-dozen contiguous villages in a particular district have each its small library, provided, in the manner already pointed out, by the united subscriptions of the inhabitants; if an arrangement be made that these six libraries shall consist of different works, and that the several collections, instead of remaining stationary, shall move about from one village to another the body of readers in each village will obtain the use of six libraries at the cost of one. This principle may be applied, of course, either to enlarge the command of reading or to diminish the cost, or to produce partly the one effect and partly the other. It would probably be found the best plan to have a portion of each collection stationary; there being certain books, of general usefulness, or in great request, which it would be desirable to have everywhere always at hand.

But there is one great difficulty which both individuals and associations frequently feel in purchasing books. They are at a loss to know what books it is best for them to procure: or, if they are anxious to procure a particular work, they do not know which is the edition that is likely, from its price or other recommendations, best to suit them. We propose in a series of short notices under our present title to lay before our readers, from time to time, such information as may assist them in the task of selection, in reference both to old and to new books. Without professing to go over the different departments of literature in any regular order, but rather seeking to give variety to our pages, and at the same time to meet the views of different readers, by passing from one subject to another, we shall from time to time give accounts

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of works, which may in our opinion deserve the attention either of managers of popular libraries or of individual buyers of books; or which, although it might not be advisable to purchase them, deserve in whole or in particular parts to be consulted by those who may have the opportunity. We shall in this way gradually provide those who may preserve our paper with a body of directions, embracing all the most important matters which are necessary to be known for the right furnishing of a library for the use of common readers. Of course we do not mean to direct our attention to any works except such as every man decently educated for the business of ordinary life may aspire to become acquainted with. With what is more peculiarly called learning we have here nothing to do. But all works belonging to what may be called popular science and literature will come within our plan, whether they treat of natural history, so much of natural philosophy as may be understood without technical mathematics, moral philosophy, criticism, history, antiquities, geography, voyages and travels, or any other subject of a similar nature. Nor shall we omit to mention such of the productions of our great poets and writers of fiction as may most fitly make part of a popular library. Our aim shall be in every case to describe the work, not by any vague general criticism, but by a distinct account of what it actually contains, and especially of what it contains which is not to be found in other works on the same subject. Keeping buyers, also, as well as our readers in view, we shall always be careful to notice both the price at which the book may be purchased, and the edition which it is best to procure. One edition of a book sometimes differs as much in value from another, or is, in truth, although bearing the same title, as much another book, as if it had really been so designated. Of two editions, accordingly, one is often very valuable, while another is nearly worthless. We believe uninformed purchasers of books are very often cheated by having bad editions sold to them for the same money for which the best editions might have been procured.

Notices of this kind, as we have said, will form a useful guide both to book-societies, and also to individuals who may have the desire and the means of furnishing themselves with a small library. The means, indeed, to effect this object will seldom be wanting where the desire is felt. We hope to see the day when even the poorest man's cottage will not be thought to be becomingly furnished without having a few shelves in one of its apartments filled with provision for the mind. This indeed is sure to take place as soon as the working classes shall have become generally educated. Books will then be deemed a necessary of life, or at least as indispensable as anything else whatever, after food, shelter, and clothing.

THE WOODMAN'S MEMORIAL.

[From the 'Plain Englishman;' published in 1821–2–3.]

I was once rambling in the most unfrequented parts of Windsor Forest, on a fine evening during the season between the hay and the corn harvest. Every thing about me was verdant and beautiful. I had passed along a little green, skirted with cottages, on my way to an unvisited part of the forest; and I had remarked the healthful and innocent looks of the children, who were playing on the road-side, and had beheld, with an equal satisfaction, many an industrious labourer either reposing at his cottage-door, or cheerfully prolonging his exertions, to train the beans, or weed the potatoes, of his little garden. At the porch of one or two cottages, "the swink'd* hedger at his supper sate," as Milton has naturally expressed this characteristic of an English evening,—and several groups of parents and children were gathered round their humble but cheerful meal, in the neatly sanded kitchen, whose door stood open to admit the sweet breath of the evening breeze.

My way conducted me from this scene of animated existence to one of the deepest solitude. I struck across a field or two, which at once led me into one of the most unfrequented parts of the forest. The sun was yet brightly shining in the west, but his rays did not pierce the thick gloom of the elms and beeches into which I had penetrated. The place was singularly wild, and seemed scarcely to belong to the quiet scenery of our inland counties. A rapid stream, which in winter must become a torrent, had formed a deep ravine, with high and precipitous banks; the fern grew about in the wildest profusion; the old roots of the trees which hung over the bourn, as the people of the forest still call it, were bared to the wind and frost; but they grasped the earth resolutely and firmly, offering no inappropriate image of a strong mind struggling with adversity. As I walked on, endeavouring to follow the course of the stream, the scene became still more solitary. I could gain no eminence to look round upon the surrounding country; I could not hear either the tinkling of the sheep-bell, the low of cattle, or the bark of the watch-dog; even the herds of deer had forsaken this spot of unbroken solitude.

The course of the bourn led me on through the same wild and tangled scenery for more than a mile. I at length arrived at a spot where my attention was powerfully excited by traces of human industry, which had something extraordinary in their appearance. On a large beech-tree was rudely carved the letters T. C., and beneath the figures 1787. My attention was drawn to the contradiction which the freshness of the carving presented to the remoteness of the date. Near the tree the grass and fern sprung up with a rank luxuriance; no cattle ever seemed to pasture in this secluded spot. Where the grass grew highest there was a remarkable appearance, which could not have been the effect of accident. For about eight feet in length and two in width the grass had been carefully cut away; indeed, the small surface was as closely trimmed as a newly-mown meadow, while the long grass grew around it as if the scythe had never violated its useless luxuriance. I was forcibly struck by these appearances, and I determined to return to the village for the purpose of seeking an explanation.

I inquired at several cottages without obtaining any satisfactory solution. There were few who knew the spot to which my questions referred. I at last addressed myself to one whose garb bespoke the occupation of a woodman. He was old, and had evidently borne much fatigue and hardship. He said that he could explain all that I wanted to know, for that he every year cut afresh the bark of the beech-tree, and removed the high grass with his sickle as fast as it grew. It was to commemorate an awful event that happened on that spot. His narrative had many pauses and breaks; but it was in substance as follows:—

"It was in the year 1787 that a fellow-woodman met his death in that lonely place. It was on a fine summer evening, as it may be now, that a dozen of us were sitting down beneath that beech-tree to refresh ourselves after our day's labour. We had been felling some trees close at hand, and a hard day's work we had of it. The bailiff ordered us some beer, and as we were returning home we met the boy coming with it, and we sat ourselves down in that high grass to enjoy it. We were tired and hot, and we drank freely. We got to talk about our own great doings, and one boasted how much money he could earn, and another bragged how much beer he could drink. There was a quarrelsome chap amongst us—his name was Joe D——, and he bullied and hectored poor Tom C—— in a strange way. Tom bore it all patiently for some time, for he was a quiet, harmless fellow, and he

* Tired.

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perhaps bethought him that a quarrel would not do any good to his wife and children. At last Joe, who was filling out the mugs of beer, instead of handing Tom his allowance, threw it in his face. The poor fellow could not bear this—for, though goodnatured, he did not want spirit. He resented the insult. The other grew more saucy and savage, and at last he hit Tom a blow in the face. I am ashamed of myself, and of all the set, when I recollect how, for the love of mischief, we encouraged the quarrel, and got up to make a ring for two fellow-creatures to strive against each other like brute beasts. To it they went; in five minutes poor Tom received a blow in the stomach, and he never spoke afterwards. He fell down where the grass is cut away, and he breathed his last under the beech-tree where the letters are carved. We carried him in our arms to the cottage;—oh, that was a scene for his poor wife which I never, never shall forget! Joe fled the country;—I saw him many years after, but he slunk along like a ghost, and I would much rather have died in my youth, like my poor fellow-woodman, than have borne about the fire which that man must have had in his heart. I do what I can to preserve the remembrance of poor Tom, as you see, for I am the last left of all who saw his frightful death. I have told my boys never to let the grass grow there when I am gone; maybe the sight of that lonely token of him may lead some to ask about it, as you have done; and the knowledge of the fatal effect of sudden quarrels may teach our children to live in peace with all about them."

*** We have the Author's permission, in this and other extracts from 'The Plain Englishman,' to make such alterations of the original as may be deemed advisable.

PROTECTION OF TRADE.

[From a Correspondent.]

The Austrian government, like several other Continental governments, still adheres to the system of high duties, amounting to prohibition, on foreign manufactured goods. This is done with the intention of *favouring home manufactures*. Now mark the consequences! In 1817, an order came from Vienna, assimilating the custom-houses of Lombardy to those of the rest of the empire, and subjecting foreign manufactures to a duty of 60 per cent. on the value, equal, in short, to prohibition in most cases. Large buildings were soon after erected into manufactories, a few clever workmen engaged for a time, some pieces of calicoes, muslins, &c. woven and pompously exhibited, after which the *manufacturer* supplied himself with English, Swiss, and French cloths, by means of smuggling, which was carried on to an immense extent all along the vast line of frontiers, the delivery being insured by companies established in the neighbouring states, and the pieces, marked with the imperial stamp, came out of the manufactories as home productions; the shops were full of foreign goods. Meantime, the custom-house receipts fell off one-half, custom-house officers and gendarmes were multiplied and maintained at a vast expense, whilst all along the frontier districts, there sprung up a proportionate array of smugglers, men who, by their perilous vocation, become familiar with violence and bloodshed, and by whom the peace of the country is continually endangered. The mock-manufacturers, if prosecuted, can show that they are able to make such and such pieces of the goods, and unless taken in the act of smuggling, there are no means of convicting them. The smuggling is carried on chiefly through the frontiers of Piedmont and Switzerland, countries which have had the good sense to reject the *protecting* system. A great proportion of the population of the Canton Ticino lives entirely by smuggling foreign goods into Austrian Lombardy. The lakes Maggiore and Lugano, the waters of which are considered neutral, afford the smugglers great facilities. The *efficiency* of the protection afforded to home manufactures by prohibitory duties may be estimated by the fact that an insurance may be readily effected upon smuggled goods at a rate varying from 10 to 15 per cent. This fact is notorious in Austrian Lombardy. The *results* of the system are, loss to the government, which might derive a moderate duty on importation,—loss to the consumer who pays high for goods, which, after all, he must use,—and loss to the country at large, which has to support a useless host of custom-house officers, and whose exports are limited by the trammels thus imposed on importation. Besides these evils, habits of fraud and contempt for the laws are fostered among the trading classes, and among the rural population of the border districts.

A MAN OVERBOARD.

[From Capt. B. Hall's Fragments of Voyages and Travels. Second Series.]

I remember once, when cruising off Terceira in the Endymion, that a man fell overboard and was drowned. After the usual confusion, and long search in vain, the boats were hoisted up, and the hands called to make sail. I was officer of the forecastle, and on looking about to see if all the men were at the station, missed one of the foretop-men. Just at that moment I observed some one curled up, and apparently hiding himself under the bow of the barge, between the boat and the booms. "Hillo!" I said, "who are you? What are you doing here, you skulker? Why are you not at your station?" "I am not skulking, sir," said the poor fellow, the furrows in whose bronzed and weather-beaten cheek were running down with tears. The man we had just lost had been his mess-mate and friend, he told me, for ten years. I begged his pardon, in full sincerity, for having used such harsh words to him at such a moment, and bid him go below to his berth for the rest of the day. "Never mind, sir, never mind," said the kind-hearted seaman, "it can't be helped. You meant no harm, sir. I am as well on deck as below. Bill's gone, sir, but I must do my duty." So saying, he drew the sleeve of his jacket twice or thrice across his eyes, and smothering his grief within his breast, walked to his station as if nothing had happened.

In the same ship, and nearly about the same time, the people were bathing alongside in a calm at sea. It is customary on such occasions to spread a studding-sail on the water, by means of lines from the fore and main yard-arms, for the use of those who either cannot swim, or who are not expert in this art, so very important to all seafaring people. Half a dozen of the ship's boys, youngsters sent on board by that admirable and most patriotic of naval institutions, the Marine Society, were floundering about in the sail, and sometimes even venturing beyond the leech-rope. One of the least of these urchins, but not the least courageous of their number, when taunted by his more skilful companions with being afraid, struck out boldly beyond the prescribed bounds. He had not gone much farther than his own length, however, along the surface of the fathomless sea, when his heart failed him, poor little man! and along with his confidence away also went his power of keeping his head above water. So down he sank rapidly, to the speechless horror of the other boys, who, of course, could lend the drowning child no help.

The captain of the forecastle, a tall, fine-looking, hard-a-weather fellow, was standing on the shank of the sheet-anchor with his arms across, and his well-varnished canvass hat drawn so much over his eyes, that it was difficult to tell whether he was awake, or merely dozing in the sun, as he leaned his back against the fore-topmast backstay. The seaman, however, had been attentively

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watching the young party all the time, and rather fearing that mischief might ensue from their rashness, he had grunted out a warning to them from time to time, to which they paid no sort of attention. At last he desisted, saying they might drown themselves if they had a mind, for never a bit would he help them; but no sooner did the sinking figure of the adventurous little boy catch his eye, than, diver-fashion, he joined the palms of his hands over his head, inverted his position in one instant, and urging himself into swifter motion by a smart push with his feet against the anchor, shot head-foremost into the water. The poor lad sunk so rapidly that he was at least a couple of fathoms under the surface before he was arrested by the grip of the sailor, who soon rose again, bearing the bewildered boy in his hand; and calling to the other youngsters to take better care of their companion, chucked him right into the belly of the sail in the midst of the party. The fore-sheet was hanging in the calm, nearly into the water, and by it the dripping seaman scrambled up again to his old berth on the anchor, shook himself like a great Newfoundland dog, and then, jumping on the deck, proceeded across the forecastle to shift himself.

At the top of the ladder he was stopped by the marine officer, who had witnessed the whole transaction, as he sat across the gangway hammocks, watching the swimmers, and trying to get his own consent to undergo the labour of undressing and dressing. Said the soldier to the sailor, "That was very well done of you, my man, and right well deserves a glass of grog. Say so to the gun-room steward as you pass; and tell him it is my orders to fill you out a stiff nor-wester." The soldier's offer was kindly meant, but rather clumsily timed, at least so thought Jack; for though he inclined his head in acknowledgment of the attention, and instinctively touched his hat when spoken to by an officer, he made no reply till out of the marine's hearing, when he laughed, or rather chuckled out to the people near him, "Does the good gentleman suppose I'll take a glass of grog for saving a boy's life?"

THE FIRMAMENT.

[William Habington, born 1605, died 1654.]

When I survey the bright
Celestial sphere:
So rich with jewels hung, that night
Doth like an Ethiop bride appear.

My soul her wings doth spread,
And Heaven-ward flies,
The Almighty's mysteries to read
In the large volumes of the skies.

For the bright firmament
Shoots forth no flame
So silent, but is eloquent
In speaking the Creator's name.

No unregarded star
Contracts its light
Into so small a character
Remov'd far from our humane sight:

But if we steadfast look,
We shall discern
In it, as in some holy book,
How man may heavenly knowledge learn.

Thus those celestial fires,
Though seeming mute,
The fallacy of our desires
And all the pride of life confute.

For they have watched since first
The world had birth;
And found sin in itself accurst,
And nothing permanent on earth.

Mr. Scott, of Exeter, travelled on business till about eighty years of age. He was one of the most celebrated characters in the kingdom for punctuality, and by his methodical conduct, joined to uniform diligence, he gradually amassed a large fortune. For a long series of years, the proprietors of every inn he frequented in Devon and Cornwall knew the day and the very hour he would arrive. A short time before he died, a gentleman on a journey in Cornwall stopped at a small inn at Port Isaac to dine. The waiter presented him with a bill of fare, which he did not approve of, but observing a fine duck roasting, "I'll have that," said the traveller. "You cannot, sir," said the landlord, "it is for Mr. Scott of Exeter." "I know Mr. Scott very well," rejoined the gentleman, "he is not in your house." "True, sir," said the landlord, "but *six months ago, when he was here last, he ordered a duck* to be ready for him this day, precisely at two o'clock; and to the astonishment of the traveller, he saw the old gentleman jogging into the inn-yard about five minutes before the appointed time.

When Lord Nelson was leaving London, on his last but glorious expedition against the enemy, a quantity of cabin furniture was ordered to be sent on board his ship. He had a farewell dinner-party at his house; and the upholsterer having waited upon his lordship, with an account of the completion of the goods, was brought into the eating-room, in a corner of which his lordship spoke with him. The upholsterer stated to his noble employer, that everything was finished and packed, and would go in the waggon, from a certain inn, at *six* o'clock. "And you go to the inn, Mr. A., and see them off?" "I shall, my lord; I shall be there *punctually at six*." "*A quarter before six*, Mr. A. (returned Lord Nelson), be there *a quarter before six*. To that *quarter of an hour* I owe everything in life."

Dr. Fowler, bishop of Gloucester, in the early part of the eighteenth century, was a believer in apparitions. The following conversation of the bishop with Judge Powell is recorded:—

"Since I saw you," said the lawyer, "I have had ocular demonstration of the existence of nocturnal apparitions."

"I am glad you are become a convert to truth; but do you say actual ocular demonstration? Let me know the particulars of the story."

"My lord, I will. It was, let me see, last Thursday night, between the hours of eleven and twelve, but nearer the latter than the former, as I lay sleeping in my bed, I was suddenly awakened by an uncommon noise, and heard something coming up stairs and stalking directly towards my room; the door flying open, I drew back my curtain, and saw a faint glimmering light enter my chamber."

"Of a blue colour no doubt."

"The light was of a pale blue, my lord, and followed by a tall meagre personage, his locks hoary with age, and clothed in a long loose gown, a leathern girdle was about his loins, his beard thick and grizly, a large fur cap on his head, and a long staff in his hand. Struck with astonishment, I remained for some time motionless and silent; the figure advanced, staring me full in the face: I then said, Whence, and what art thou?"

"What was the answer—tell me—what was the answer?"

"The following was the answer I received:—'I am watchman of the night, an't please your honour, and made bold to come up stairs to inform the family of their street door being open, and that if it was not soon shut, they would probably be robbed before morning.'"

Only the nation which invented 'comfort' was capable of conceiving 'good temper,' for 'good temper' is to the moral what 'comfort' is to the physical man. It is the most contented, the most *comfortable* state of the soul; the greatest happiness both for those who possess it, and for those who feel its influence. Perhaps it is found in perfection in woman alone; for it is rather a passive than an active quality: and yet we must by no means confound it with mere apathy, which is either tedious, or exasperates one's anger and contempt; whereas 'good temper' soothes and tranquillizes all who approach it. It is a truly kind, loving, and cheerful principle; mild and balmy as a cloudless May-day. With 'gentleness' in his own character, 'comfort' in his house, and 'good temper' in his wife, the earthly felicity of man is complete.—*Tour of a German Prince.*

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